

ECE 350
Real-time
Operating
Systems



Lecture 2: OS Concepts

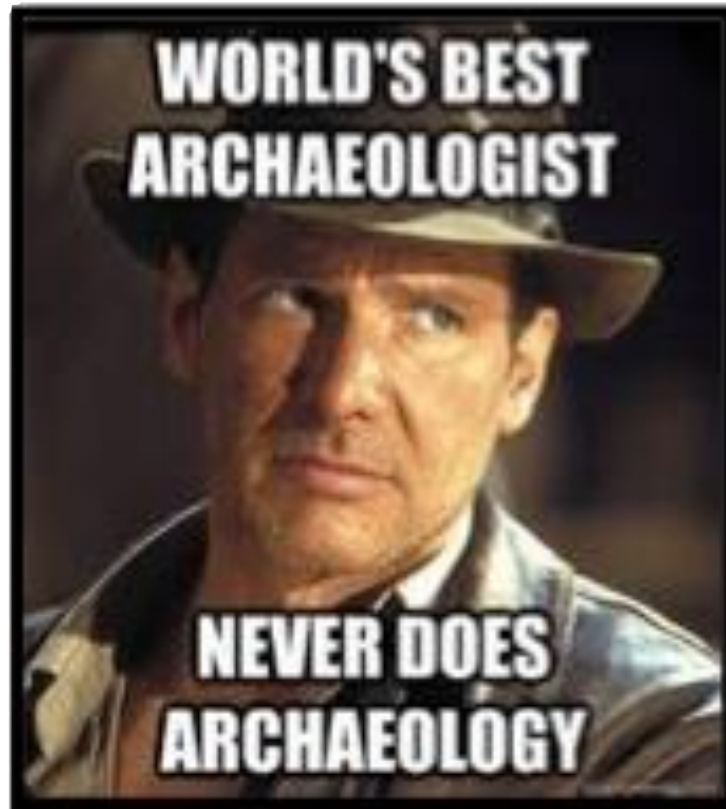
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<https://ece.uwaterloo.ca/~smzahedi>

Outline

- Four fundamental OS concepts
 - Thread
 - Address space
 - Process
 - Dual-mode operation/protection

Before We Start: OS Archaeology?

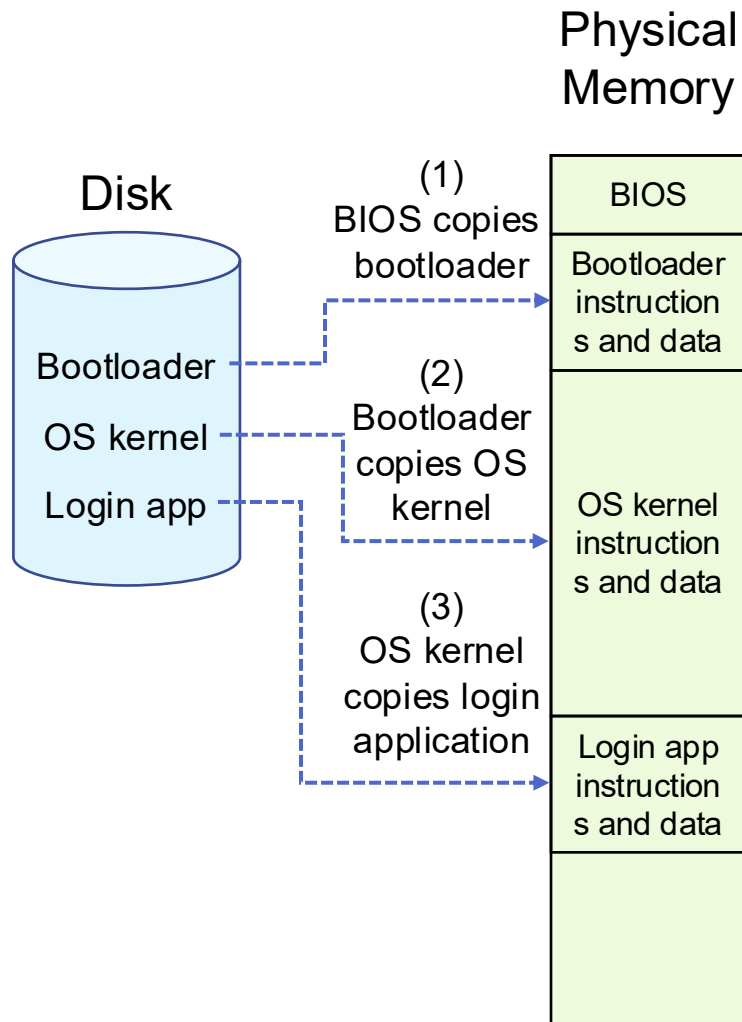


anthropology4u.medium.com

Today: Four Fundamental OS Concepts

- **Thread**
 - Single unique execution context which fully describes program state
 - Program counter, registers, execution flags, stack
- **Address space (with translation)**
 - Address space which is distinct from machine's physical memory addresses
- **Process**
 - Instance of executing program consisting of address space and 1+ threads
- **Dual-mode operation/protection**
 - Only “system” can access certain resources
 - OS and hardware are protected from user programs
 - User programs are isolated from one another by controlling translation from program virtual addresses to machine physical addresses

Booting OS

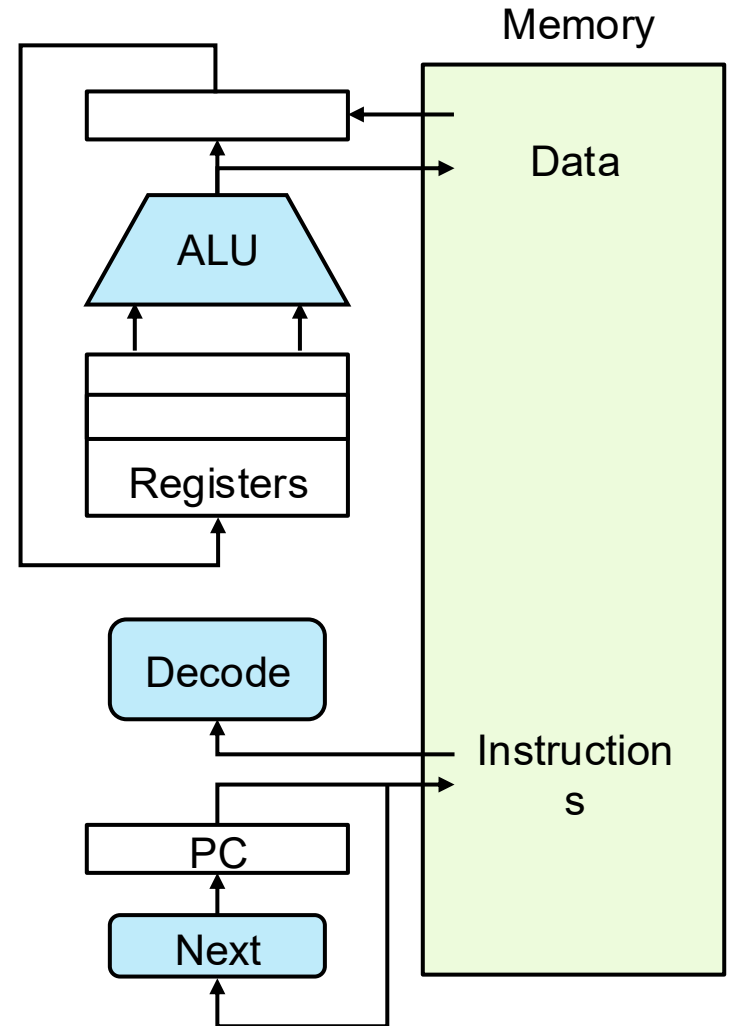


- In most x86 systems, BIOS is stored on Boot ROM
 - Expensive and writing to it is slow
 - The "ground zero" of trust
- Why not storing kernel on Boot ROM?
 - Hard to update (OS updates are frequent)
- Why does BIOS load bootloader not OS?
 - Might have multiple OSes installed
 - BIOS needs to read raw bytes from disk, whereas bootloader needs to know how to read from filesystem

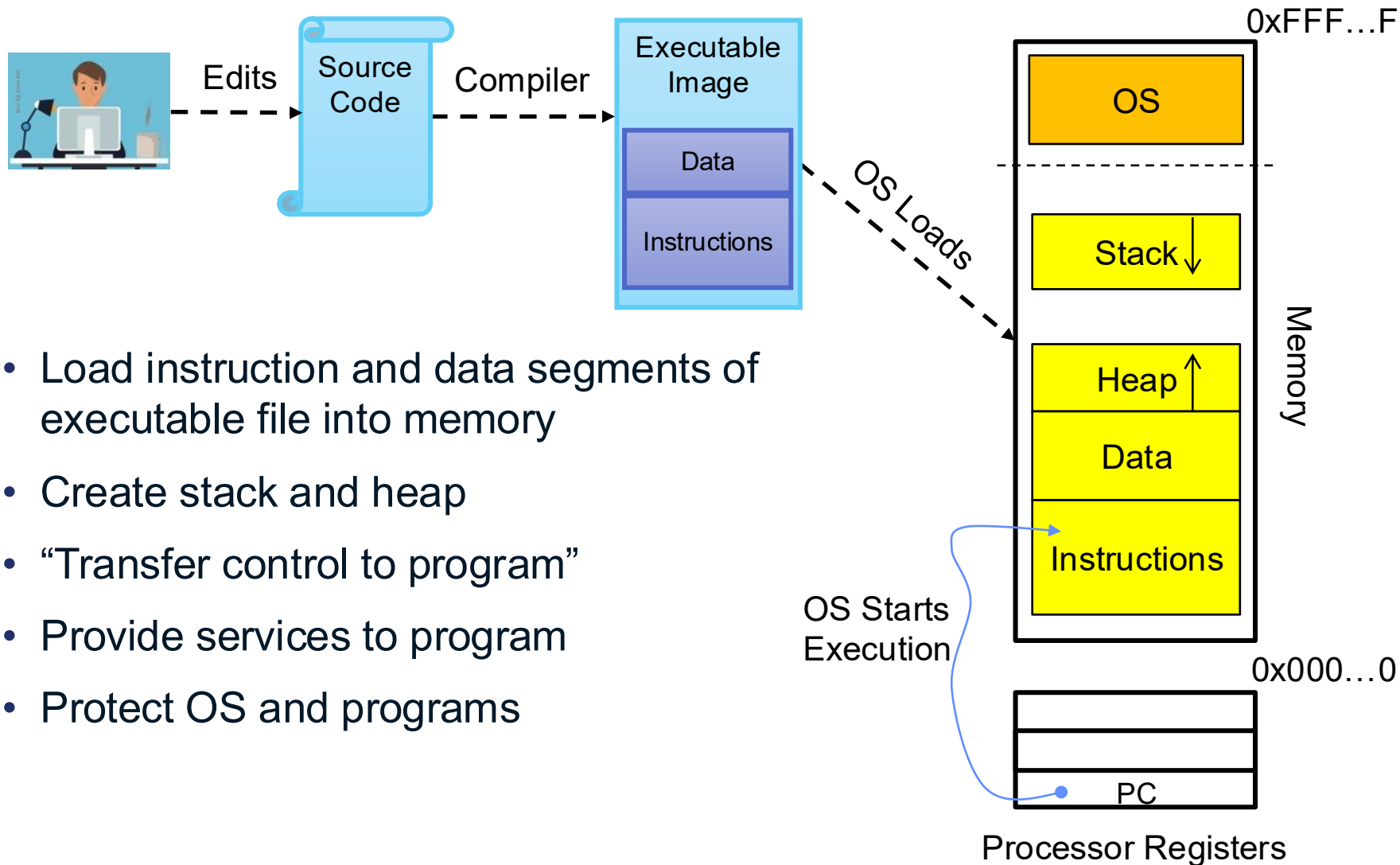
Instruction Cycle: Fetch, Decode, Execute

- Execution sequence
 - Fetch instruction at PC
 - Decode
 - Execute (possibly using registers)
 - Write results to registers/memory
 - $PC \leftarrow \text{Next}(PC)$
 - Repeat

Next instruction or jump
to new address ...

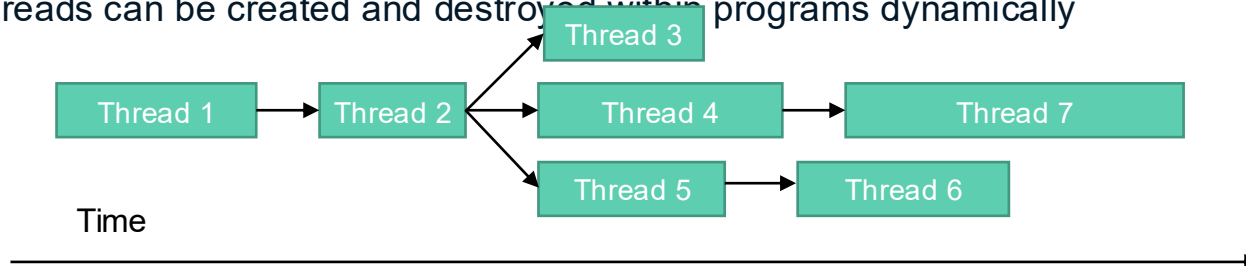


OS Bottom Line: Run Programs



Thread (1st OS Concept)

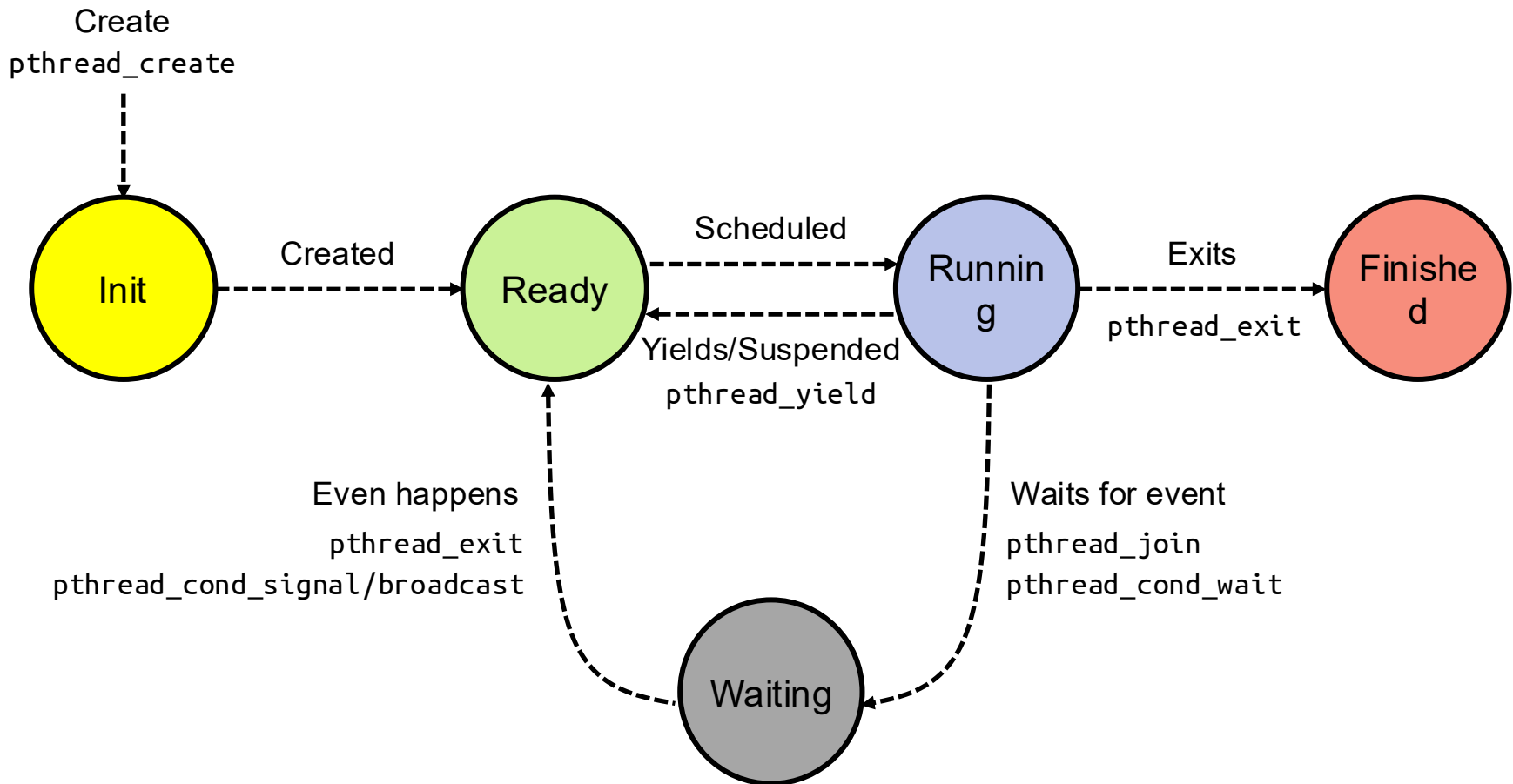
- Thread is short for **thread of execution**
- Thread of execution is sequence of executable commands that can run on CPU
- Threads have some state and store some local variables
 - Execution state (ready, running, waiting, ...)
 - Saved context when not running
 - Execution stack
 - Local variables
 - ...
- Multithreaded programs use more than one thread (some of the time)
 - Program begins with single initial thread (where the `main` method is)
 - Threads can be created and destroyed within programs dynamically



Recall: The POSIX Thread

- `pthread`
 - Refers to POSIX standard that defines thread behavior in UNIX
- `pthread_create`
 - Create new thread to run a function
- `pthread_exit`
 - Quit thread and clean up, wake up joiner if any
 - Allow other threads to continue execution, the main thread should terminate by calling `pthread_exit()` rather than `exit(3)`
- `pthread_join`
 - Wait for children to exit, then return
- `pthread_yield`
 - Relinquish CPU voluntarily
- ...

Thread Lifecycle



A process can go directly from ready or waiting to finished (example: main thread calls exit)

Thread Control Block (TCB)

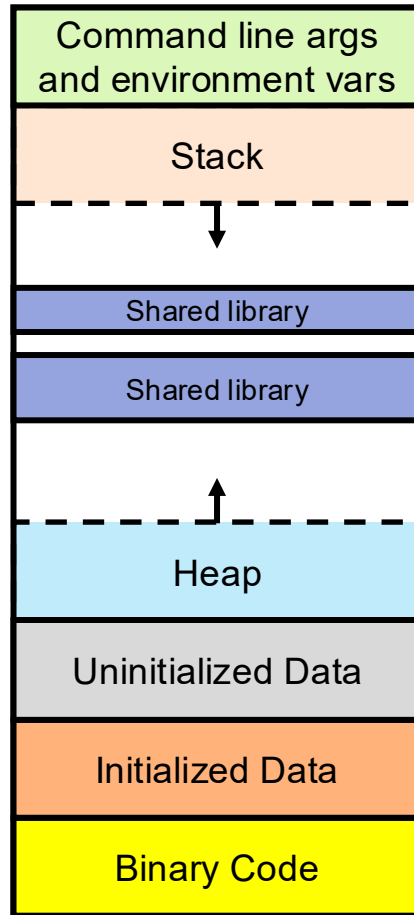
- Data structure in OS containing information needed to manage a thread
 - Thread unique identifier (tid)
 - Stack pointer (points to thread's stack in the process)
 - Program counter (points to the current program instruction of the thread)
 - State of the thread (e.g., running, ready, waiting, etc.)
 - Thread's register values
 - Pointer to process control block (PCB) of the process that the thread lives on

Address Space (2nd OS Concept)

- **Address space**: set of accessible addresses and their state
- **Physical memory**: data storage medium
- **Physical addresses**: addresses available on physical memory
 - For 4GB of memory: $2^{32}\text{B} \sim 4$ billion addresses
- **Virtual addresses**: addresses generated by program
 - For 64-bit processor: $2^{64} > 18$ quintillion (10^{18}) addresses

Virtual Address Space Layout of C Programs

0xFFFF...F



0x0000...0

```
#include <stdio.h>
```

```
#include <stdlib.h>
```

```
int x;
```

```
int y = 15;
```

```
int main(int argc, char *argv[]) {
```

```
    int *values;  
    int I;
```

```
    values = (int *)malloc(sizeof(int)*5);
```

```
    for (i = 0; i < 5; i++)  
        values[i] = i;
```

```
    return 0;
```

```
}
```

Stack Example

```
A0: A(int tmp) {  
A1:     if (tmp<2)  
A2:         B();  
A3:     printf(tmp);  
A4: }  
B0: B() {  
B1:     C();  
B2: }  
C0: C() {  
C1:     A(2);  
C2: }  
    A(1);  
ext:
```

Stack
Pointer



tmp = 1 ret = ext

- Stack holds temporary results
- Permits recursive execution
- Crucial to modern languages

Stack Example

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A0: A(int tmp) {  
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Stack
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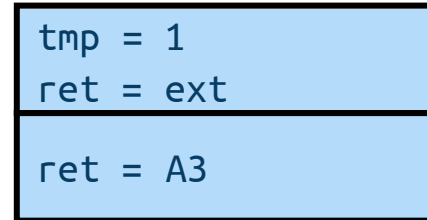
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Stack
Pointer

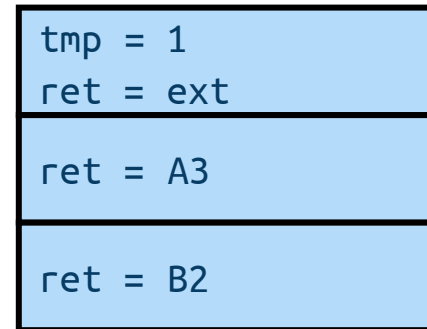


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Pointer



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Stack
Pointer



tmp = 1 ret = ext
ret = A3
ret = B2
tmp = 2 ret = C2

- Stack holds temporary results
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Stack Example

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A0: A(int tmp) {  
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Stack
Pointer



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> 2

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```

Stack
Pointer



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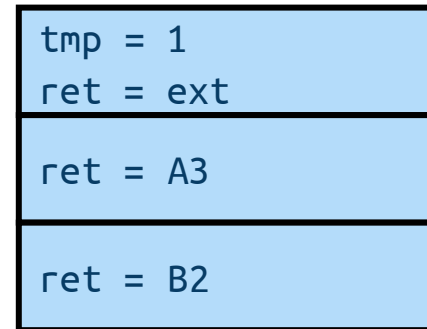
> 2

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Stack
Pointer



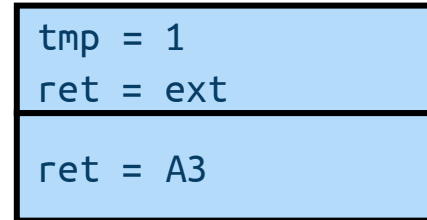
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Stack
Pointer



> 2

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Stack
Pointer



```
tmp = 1  
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> 21

- Stack holds temporary results
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Stack Example

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C0: C() {  
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C2: }  
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ext:
```

Stack
Pointer



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> 21

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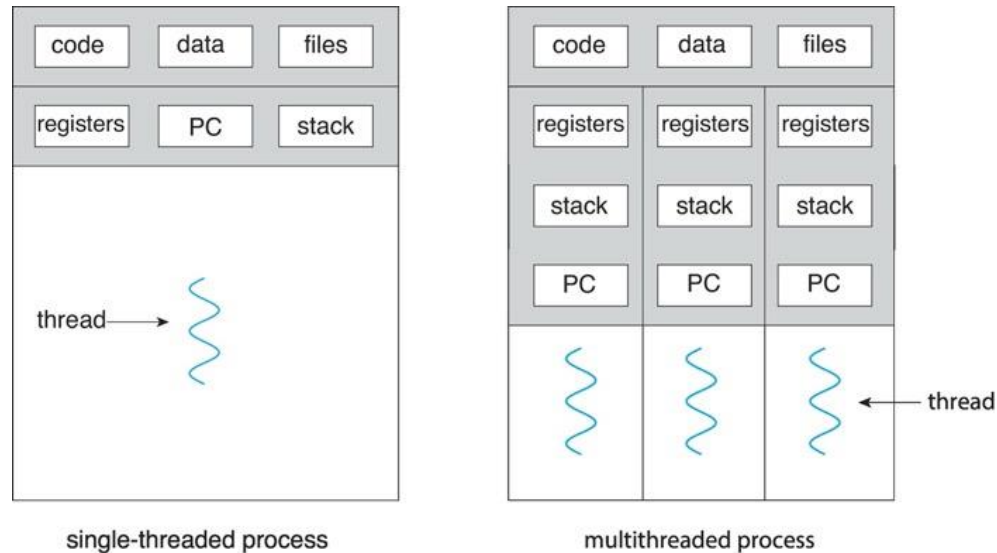
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> 21

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Process (3rd OS Concept)



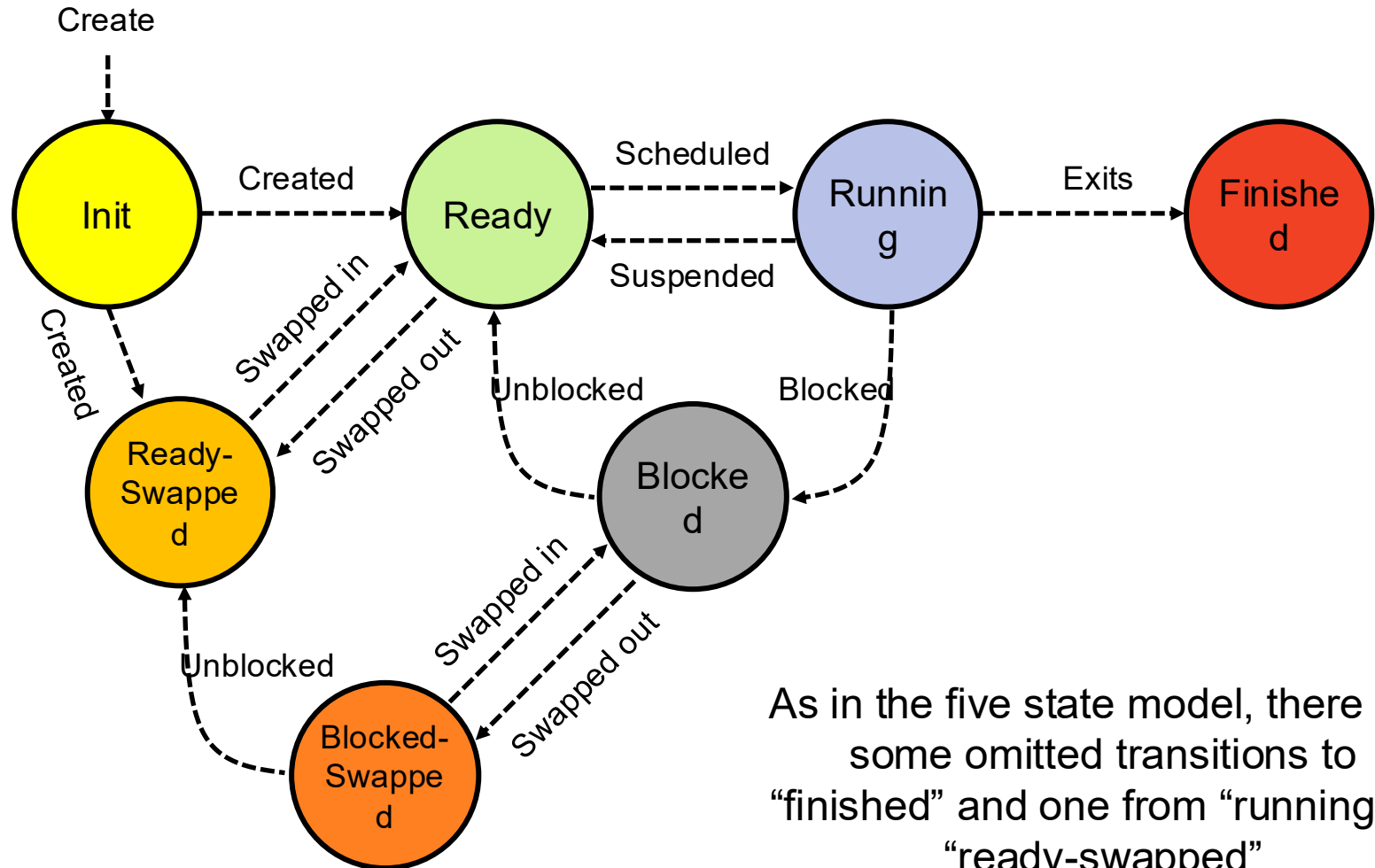
- Process: execution environment with **restricted rights**
 - Address space with one or more threads
 - Owns memory (address space)
 - Owns file descriptors, file system context, ...
- Fundamental tradeoff between **protection and efficiency**
 - Communication easier within a process
 - Communication harder between processes

Recall: Process Control Block (PCB)

- Is a data structure for managing processes
- Is created and updated by OS for each running process
 - Is kept up to date constantly as process executes
- Is held in memory and maintained in some container (e.g., list) by kernel
- Contains everything OS needs to know about the process
 - Unique process identifier (PID), state, priority
 - Program counter (PC)
 - Register data
 - Memory pointers
 - I/O status information,
 - Accounting information
- PC and register data do not need to be updated when program is running
 - They are needed when a system call (trap) or process switch occurs

process state
process number
program counter
registers
memory limits
list of open files
...

Recall: Process Lifecycle (7 States)



As in the five state model, there are some omitted transitions to “finished” and one from “running” to “ready-swapped”

What Does it Take to Create Process?

- Must construct new PCB
 - Inexpensive
- Must set up new *page tables* for address space (more on this later)
 - More expensive
- Copy data from parent process? (Unix `fork()`)
 - With Unix `fork()`, child process gets copy of parent's memory and I/O state
 - Originally very expensive
 - Much less expensive with “copy on write” (more on this later)
- Copy I/O state (file handles, etc.)
 - Medium expense

Multithreaded Processes



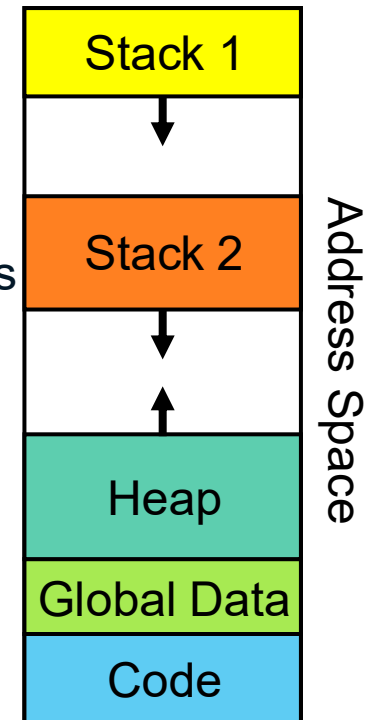
- Threads encapsulate **concurrency** and are **active** components
- Address spaces encapsulate **protection** and are **passive** part
 - Keeps buggy program from trashing system
- Why have multiple threads per address space?
 - Processes are expensive to start, switch between, and communicate between

Multiple Processes vs. Single Process With Multiple Threads

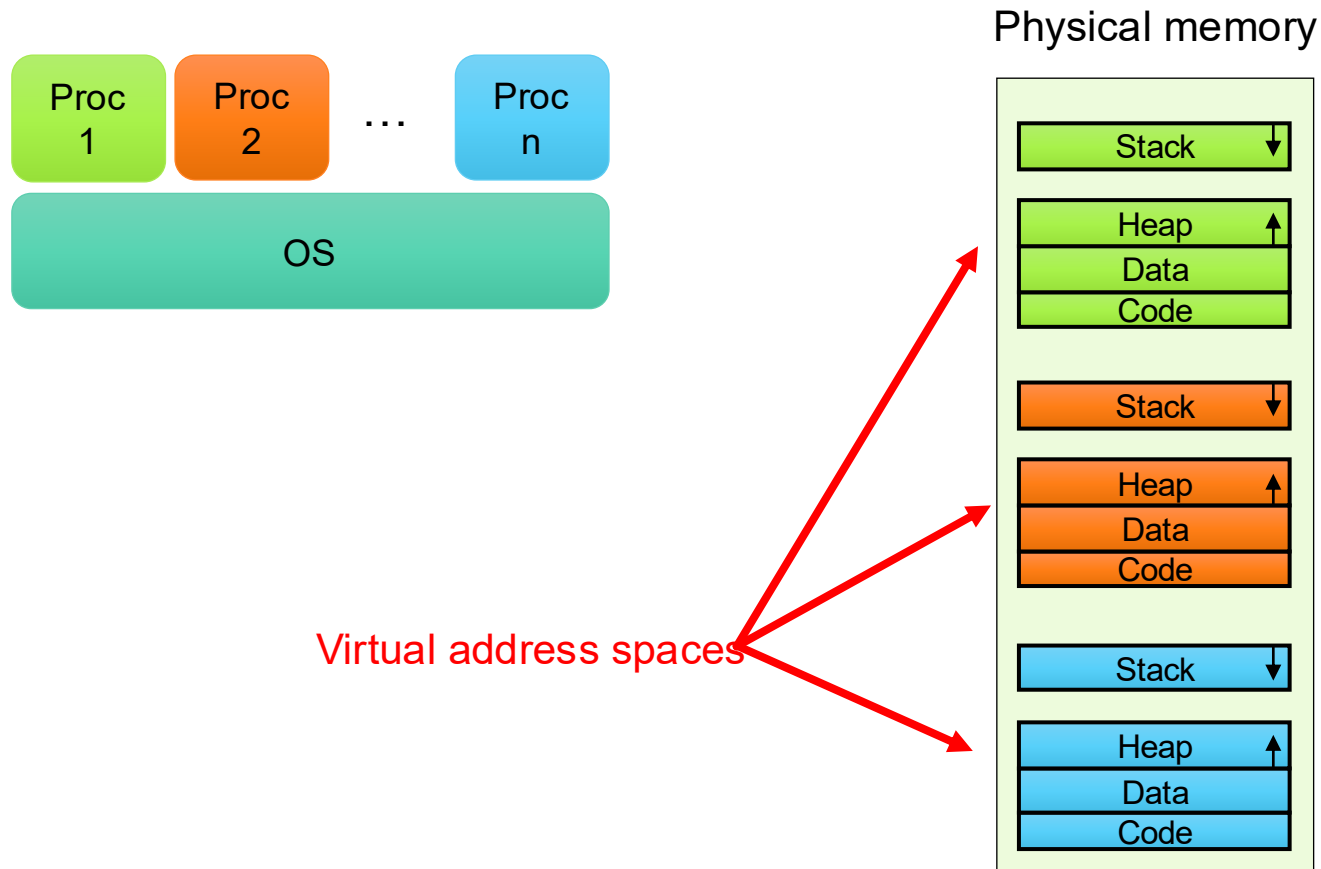
- Fundamental tradeoff between **protection and efficiency**
- Communication harder between processes
 - This is basically IPC
 - It necessarily involves OS
- Communication easier within a process
 - All threads of process share state and resources of process
 - If one thread opens a file, other threads in the process can access it
 - It does not involve OS

Memory Footprint of Multiple Threads

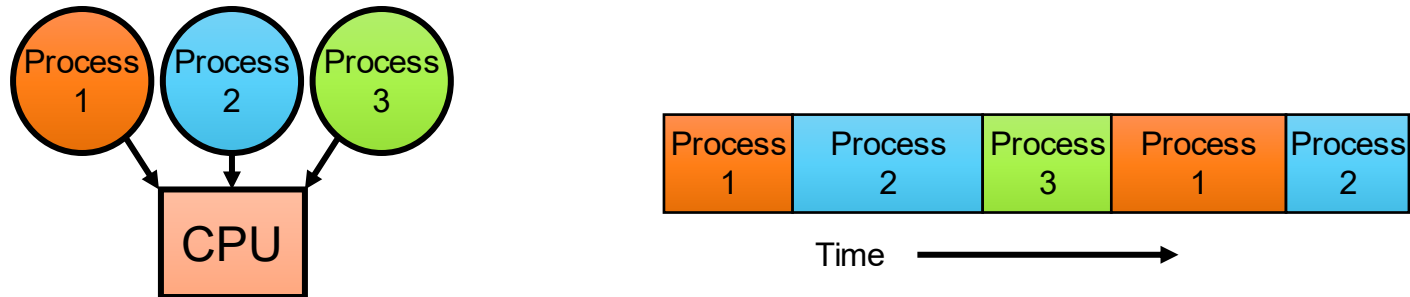
- How do we position stacks relative to each other?
- What maximum size should we choose for stacks?
 - 8KB for **kernel-level** stacks in Linux on x86
 - Less need for tight space constraint for user-level stacks
- What happens if threads violate this?
 - “... program termination and/or corrupted data”
- How might you catch violations?
 - Place guard values at top and bottom of each stack
 - Check values on every context switch



Multiprogramming: Running Multiple Processes



Time Sharing: Multiprogramming on Single CPU



- **Illusion**: infinite number of processors
 - Each thread runs on dedicated virtual processor
- **Reality**: few processors, multiple threads running at variable speed
- How can we give illusion of infinite number of processors?
 - **Multiplex in time!**
- How do we **switch** from one process to next?
 - Save PC, SP, and registers in current PCB
 - Load PC, SP, and registers from new PCB
- What **triggers** switch?
 - Timer, voluntary yield, I/O interrupts, ...

How Do We Multiplex Processes?

- **Scheduling:** OS decides which process uses CPU time
 - Only one process is “running” on each CPU at any time
 - Scheduler could give more time to *important* processes
- **Protection:** OS divides non-CPU resources among processes
 - E.g., give each process their own address space
 - E.g., multiplex I/O through system calls

Scheduling

- Kernel scheduler decides which processes/threads receive CPU
- There are variety of scheduling policies for ...
 - Fairness or
 - Realtime guarantees or
 - Latency optimization or ...
- Kernel scheduler maintains data structure containing PCBs

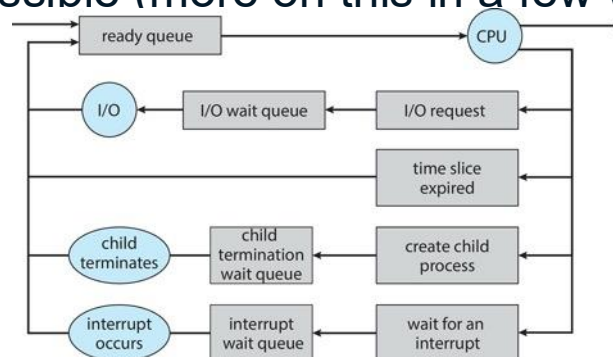


```
if (readyProcesses(PCBs)) {  
    nextPCB = selectProcess(PCBs);  
    run(nextPCB);  
} else {  
    run_idle_process();  
}
```

Ready Queue

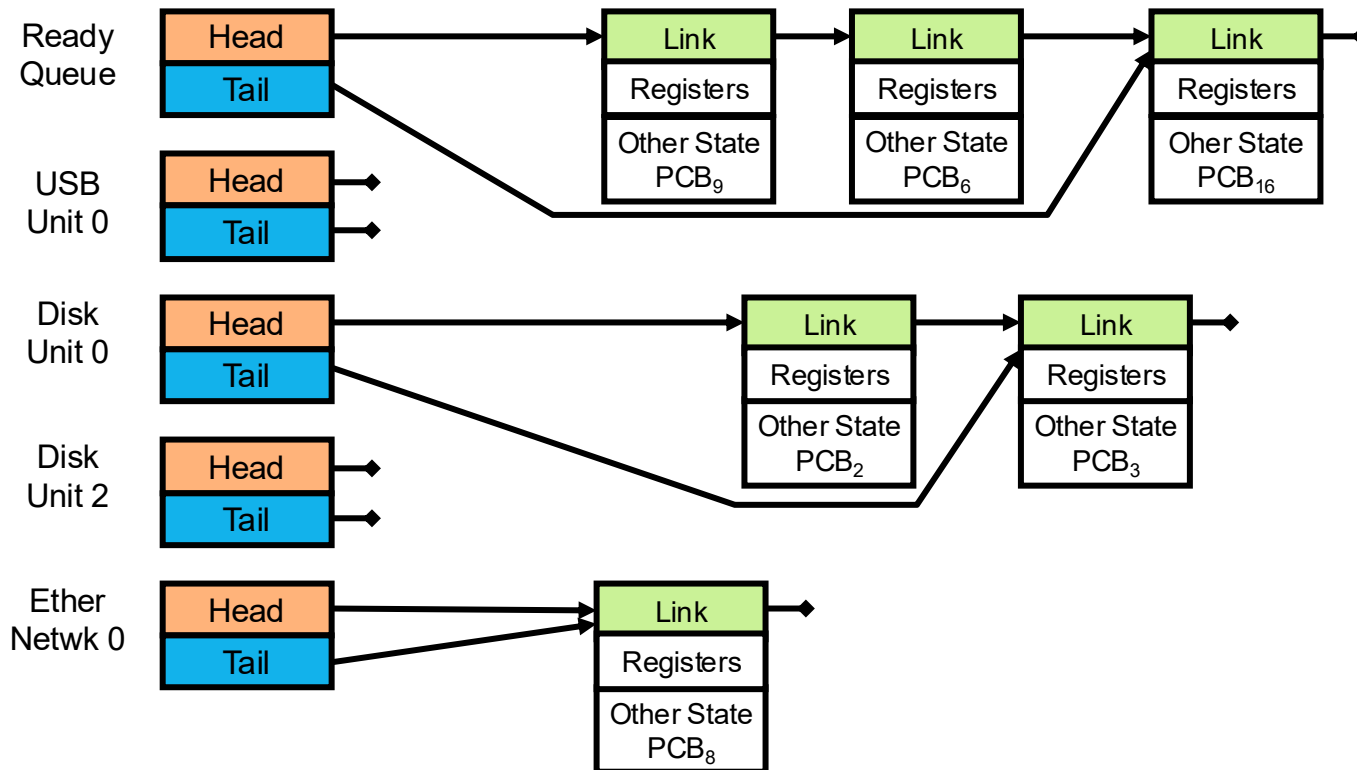


- Processes move from queue to queue as they change state
 - Decisions about which order to remove from queues are **scheduling** decisions
 - Many algorithms possible (more on this in a few weeks)



Ready Queue And I/O Device Queues

- Process not running $\Rightarrow$ It is in some scheduler queue
 - Separate queue for each device/signal/condition
 - Each queue can have different scheduler policy



Protection

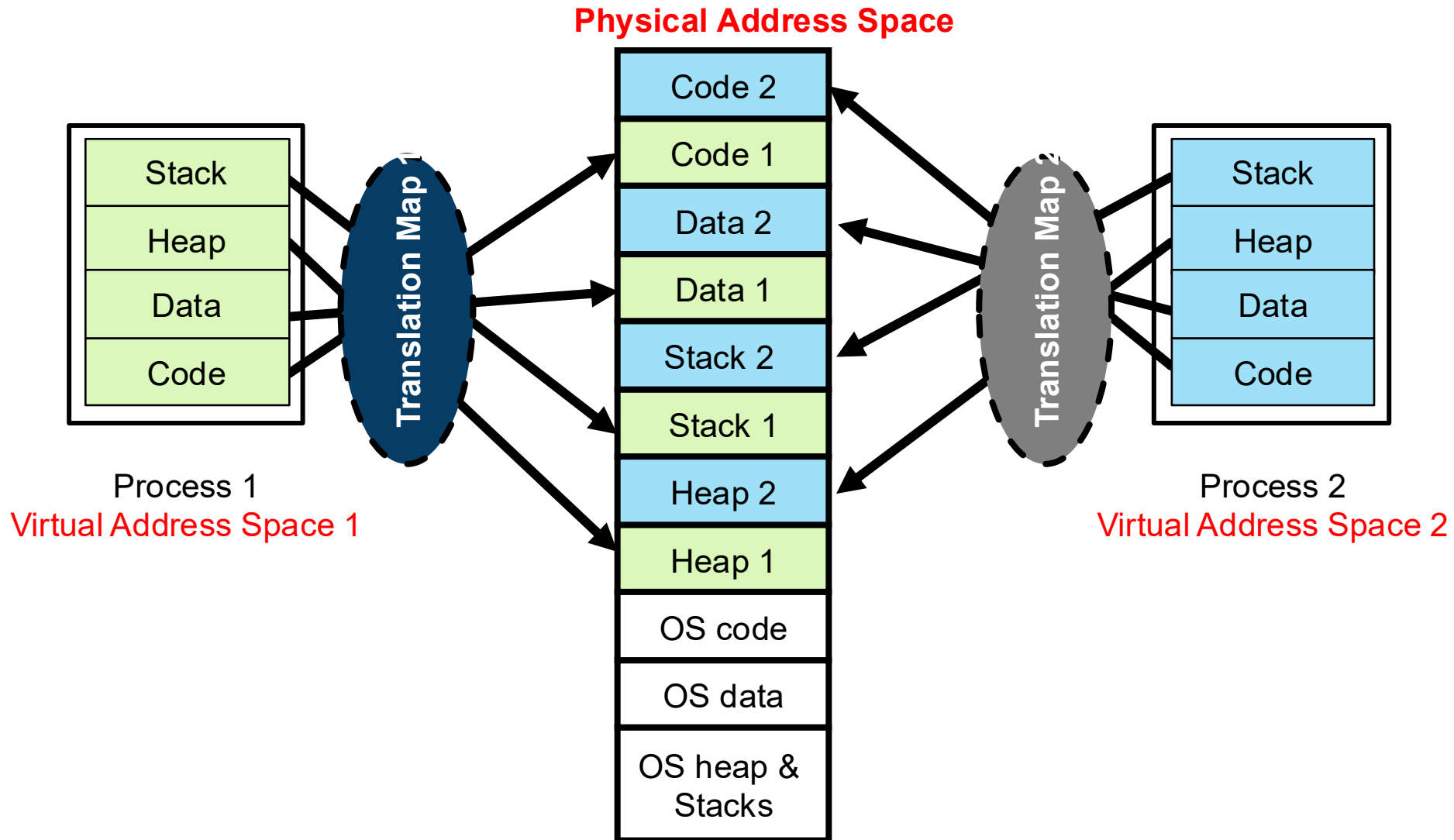
- OS must protect itself from user programs
 - **Reliability**: prevent OS from crashing
 - **Security**: limit scope of what processes can do
 - **Privacy**: limit data each process can access
 - **Fairness**: enforce appropriate share of HW
- It must protect user programs from one another
- Main method is to limit translation from virtual to physical address space



How to Protect Processes from One Another?

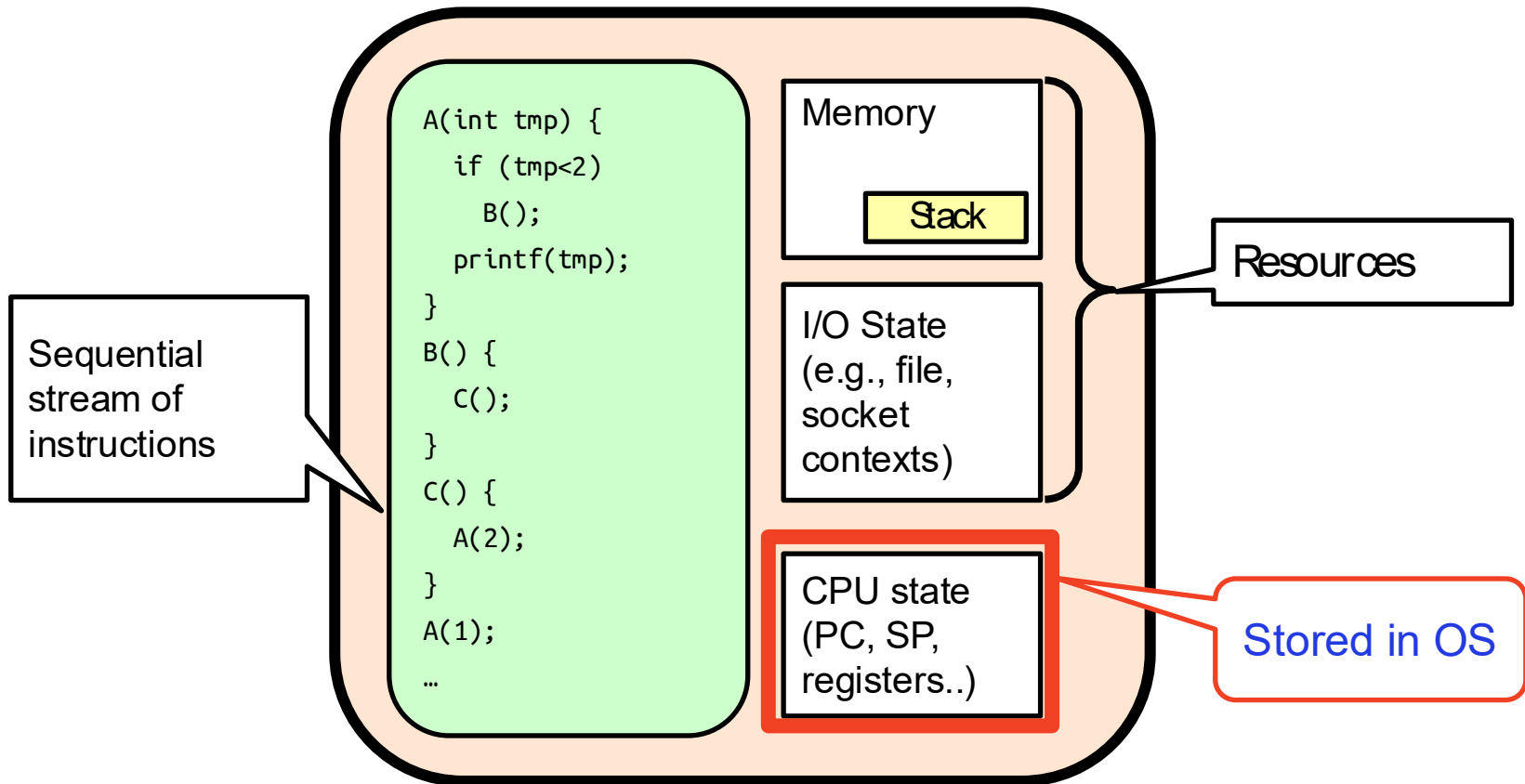
- Protection of **memory**
 - Every process does not have access to all memory
- Protection of **I/O devices**
 - Every process does not have access to every device
- Protection of access to **processor**
 - **Preemptive** switching from process to process
 - Use of **timer**
 - Must not be possible to disable timer from user code

Address Translation Maps: Illusion of Separate Address Space

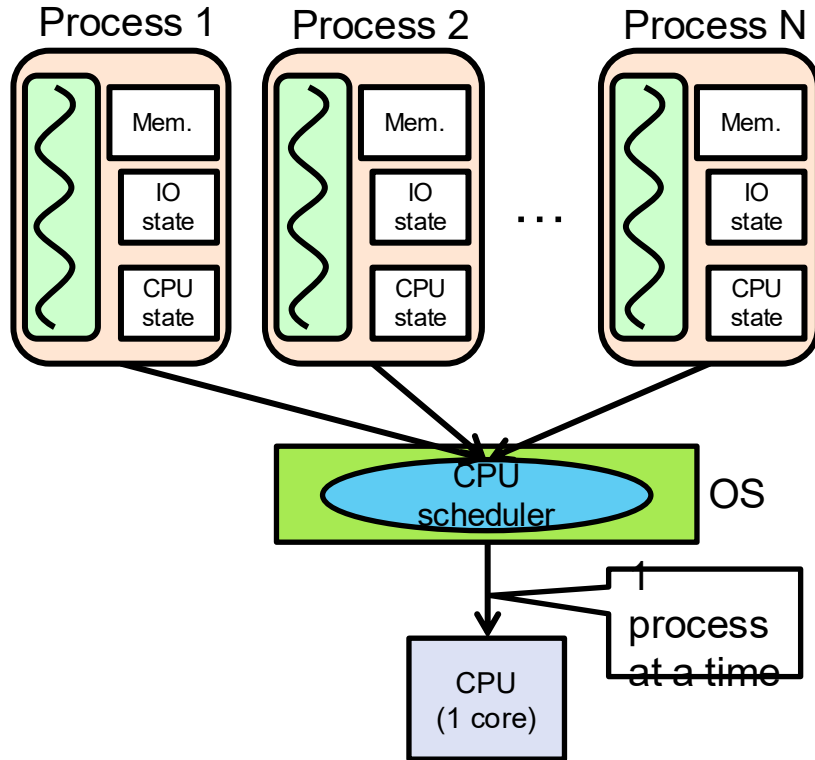


Putting it Together: Process

(Unix) Process

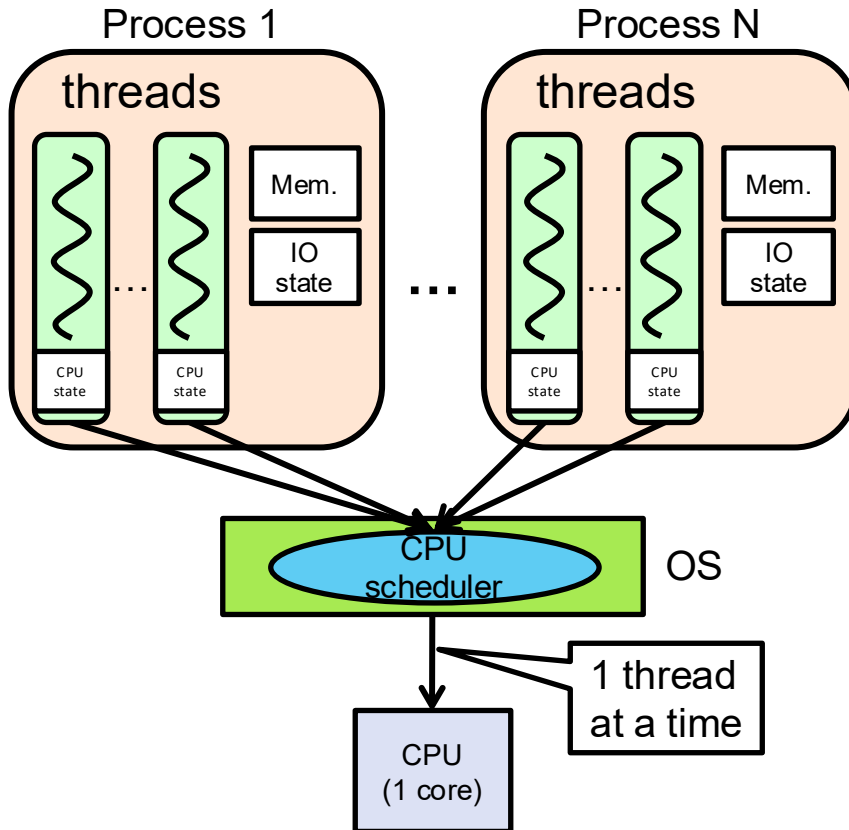


Putting it Together: Processes



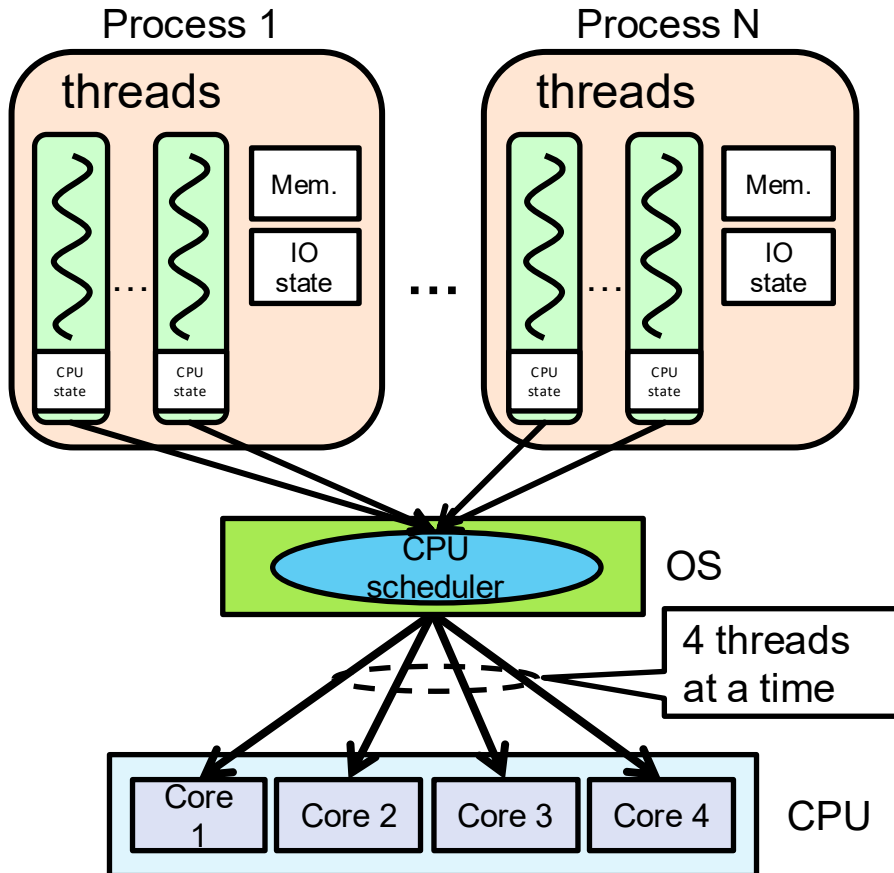
- Switch overhead: **high**
 - CPU state: **low**
 - Memory/IO state: **high**
- Process creation: **high**
- Protection
 - CPU: **yes**
 - Memory/IO: **yes**
- Sharing overhead: **high**
(involves at least one context switch)

Putting it Together: Threads



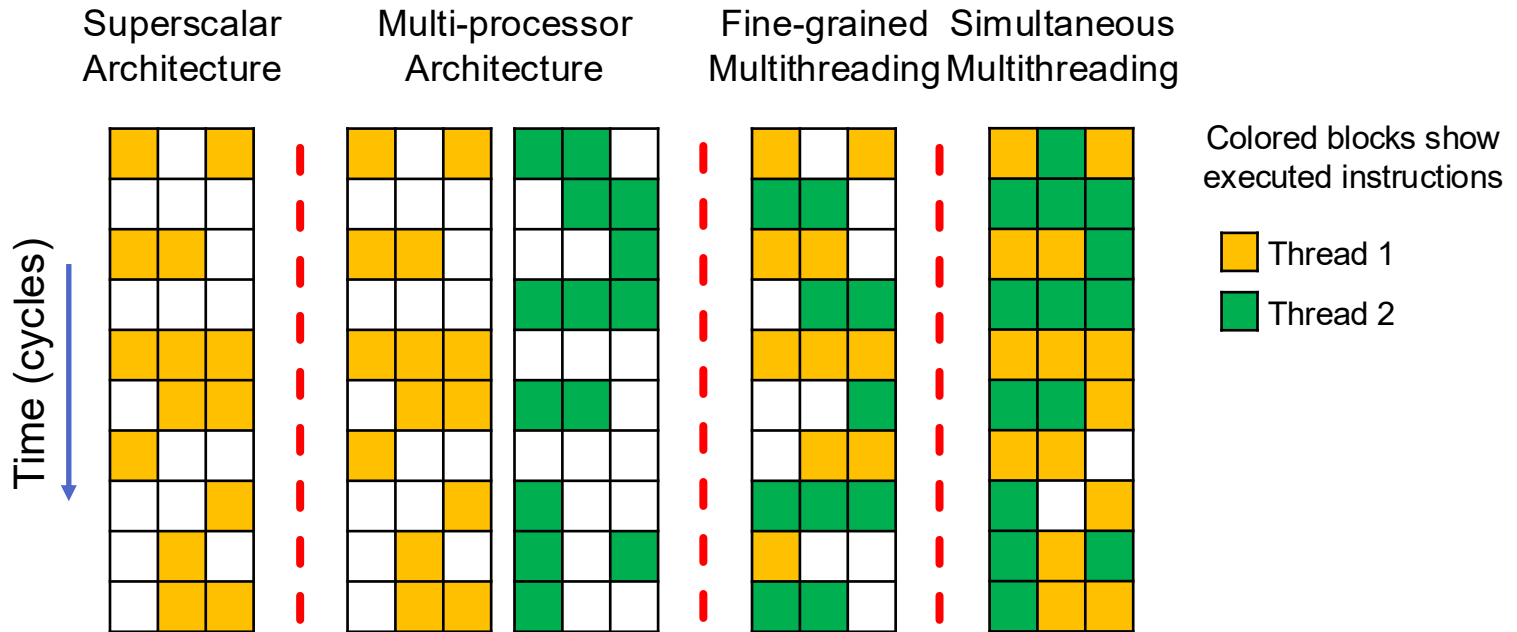
- Switch overhead: **medium**
 - CPU state: **low**
- Thread creation: **medium**
- Protection
 - CPU: **yes**
 - Memory/IO: **no**
- Sharing overhead: **low**(ish) (thread switch overhead low)

Putting it Together: Multi-cores



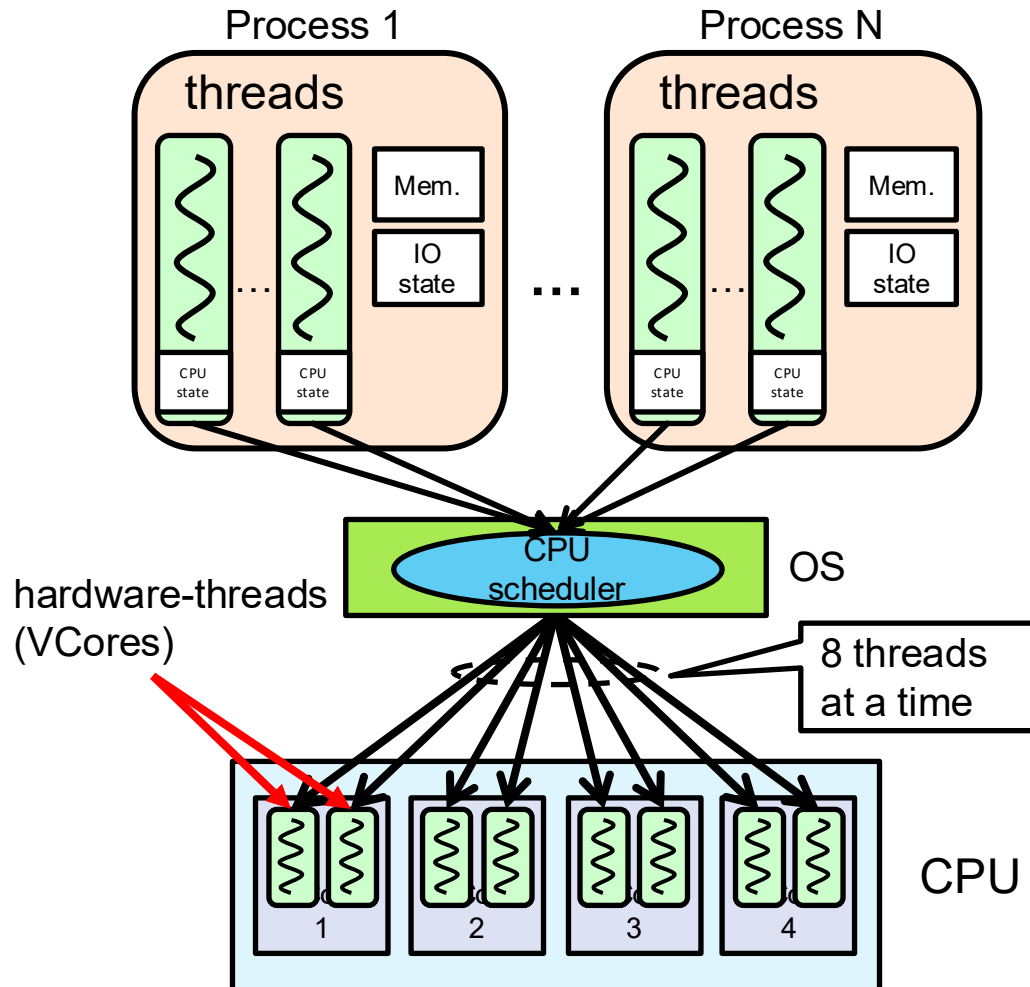
- Switch overhead: **low** (only CPU state)
- Thread creation: **low**
- Protection
 - CPU: **yes**
 - Memory/IO: **no**
- Sharing overhead: **low** (thread switch overhead **low**, may not need to switch at all!)

Hyperthreading



- Superscalar processors can execute multiple instructions that are independent
- Multiprocessors can execute multiple independent threads
- Fine-grained multithreading executes two independent threads by switches between them
- Hyperthreading duplicates register state to make second (hardware) “thread” (virtual core)
 - From OS’s point of view, virtual cores are separate CPUs
 - OS can schedule as many threads at a time as there are virtual cores (but, sub-linear

Putting it Together: Hyperthreading



- Switch overhead between hardware-threads: **very-low** (done in hardware)
- Contention for ALUs/FPUs may **hurt** performance

Dual-mode Operation (4th OS Concept)

- Hardware provides at least two modes
 - **Kernel mode** (or “supervisor” or “protected”)
 - **User mode**, which is how normal programs are executed
- How can hardware support dual-mode operation?
 - Single bit of state (user/system mode bit)
 - Certain operations/actions only permitted in system/kernel mode
 - In user mode they fail or trap
 - User to kernel transition sets system mode AND saves user PC
 - OS code carefully puts aside user state then performs necessary actions
 - Kernel to user transition clears system mode AND restores user PC

Three Types of Mode Transfer

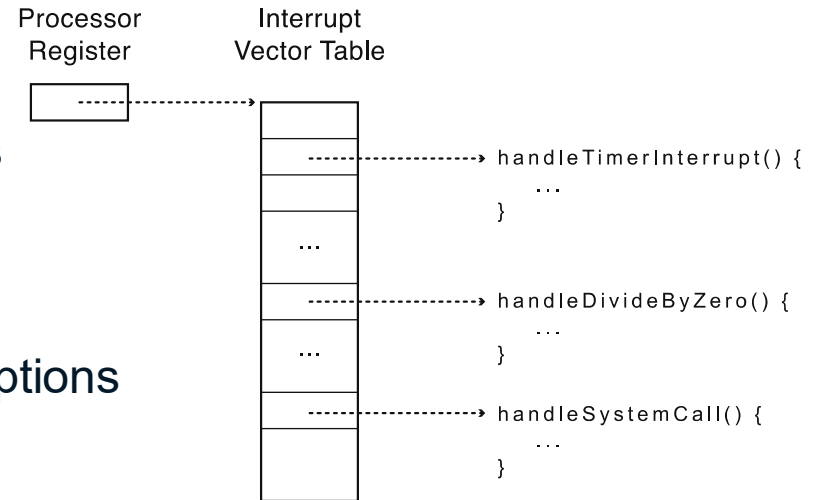
- **System call**: request for kernel services
 - E.g., open, close, read, write, lseek
 - Usually implemented by calling *trap* or *syscall* instruction
 - Special instruction is not strictly required; on some systems, processes trigger system calls by executing some instruction with specific invalid opcode
- **Processor exception**: internal, **synchronous**, hardware event
 - E.g., divide by zero, illegal instruction, segmentation fault, page fault
 - Caused by software behavior
- **Interrupt**: external **asynchronous** event
 - E.g., timer, disk ready, network
 - Interrupts can be disabled; exceptions and traps cannot!

Requirements for Safe Mode Transfer

- Limited entry into kernel
 - HW must ensure entry point into kernel is one set up by kernel
 - User programs cannot be allowed to jump to arbitrary locations in kernel
- Atomic changes to processor state
 - In user mode, PC and SP point to memory locations in user process
 - In kernel mode, PC and SP point to memory locations in kernel
 - Mode, PC, SP, and memory protection should all change atomically
- Transparent, restartable execution
 - User-level process could get interrupted between any two instructions
 - OS must restore state of user process exactly as it was before interrupt

Interrupt Vector Table

- Table set up by OS pointing to code to run on system calls, processor exceptions, and interrupts



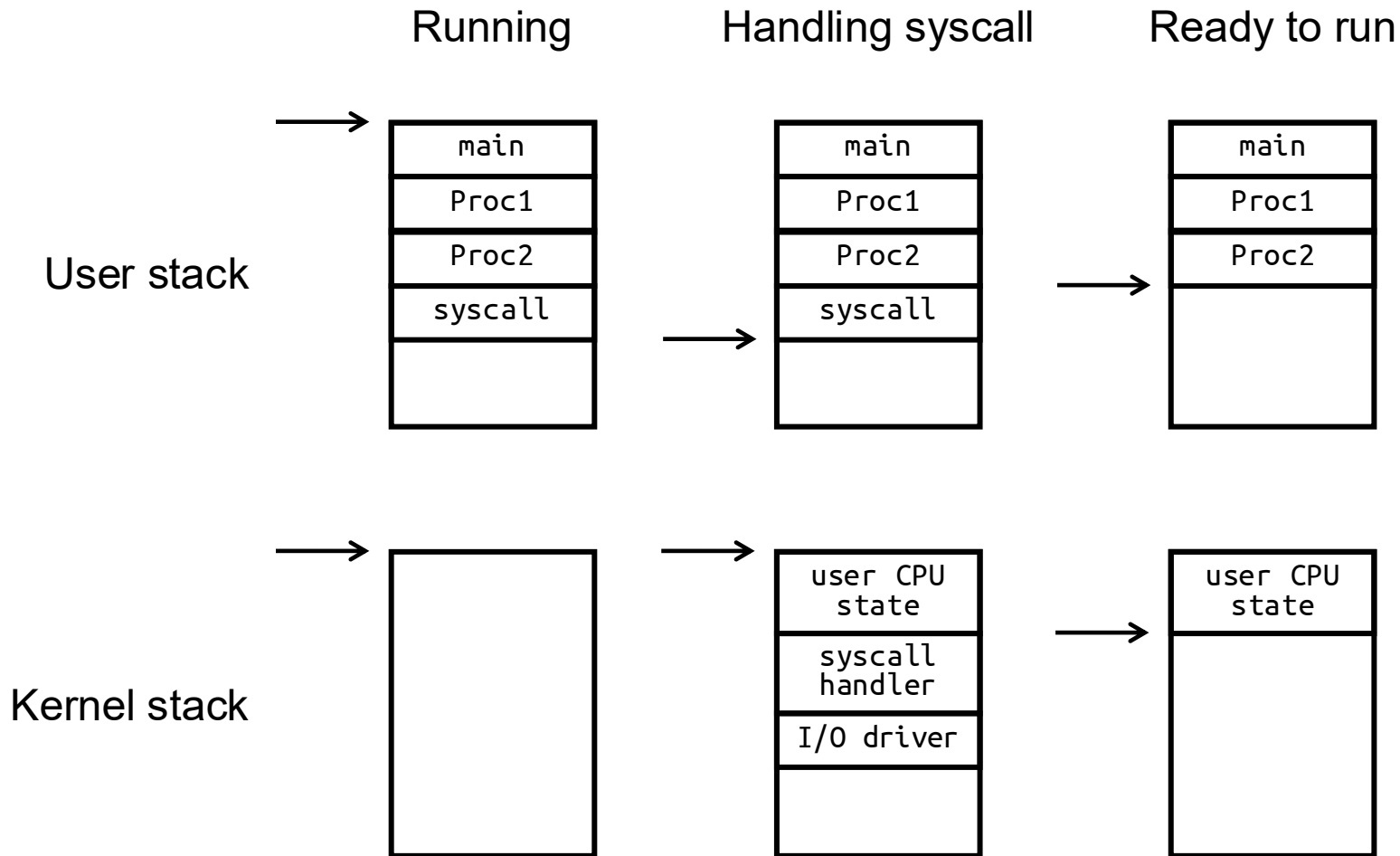
- On x86, vector numbers 0-31 are for different types of processor exceptions (e.g., divide-by-zero)
- Vector numbers 32-255 are for different types of interrupts (e.g., timer)
- Vector number 64 is for system call handler

Interrupt Stack

- User process state should be saved
- OS should not save anything on user stack (why?)
 - **Reliability**: what if user program's SP is not valid?
 - **Security**: what if other threads in process change kernel's return address?
- Most OSes go one step further and allocate separate **kernel interrupt stack** (also called **kernel stack**) for each user-level thread
 - PCB could store pointer to kernel stack



Two-stack Model Example



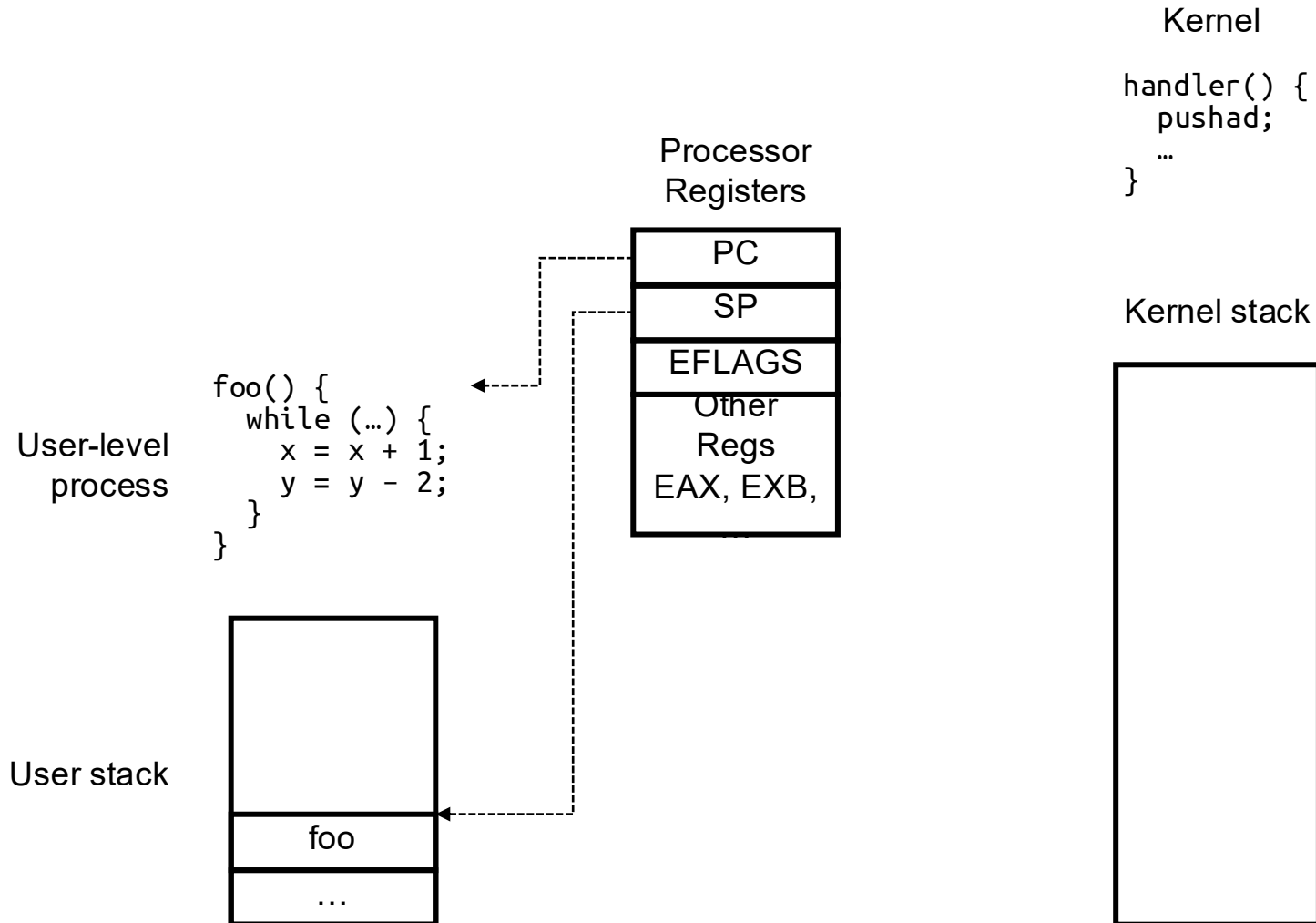
Interrupt Masking

- Interrupt handler runs with interrupts *disabled*
- This simplifies interrupt handling
- Interrupts are re-enabled when interrupt completes
- Interrupts are *deferred* (masked) not ignored
- HW buffers new interrupts until interrupts are re-enabled
- If interrupt are disabled for long time, some interrupts may be lost
- On x86, `ccli` disables interrupts and `stti` enables interrupts
 - Only applies to current CPU (on a multicore)
 - User programs cannot use these instructions (why?)

Mode Transfer Steps in x86

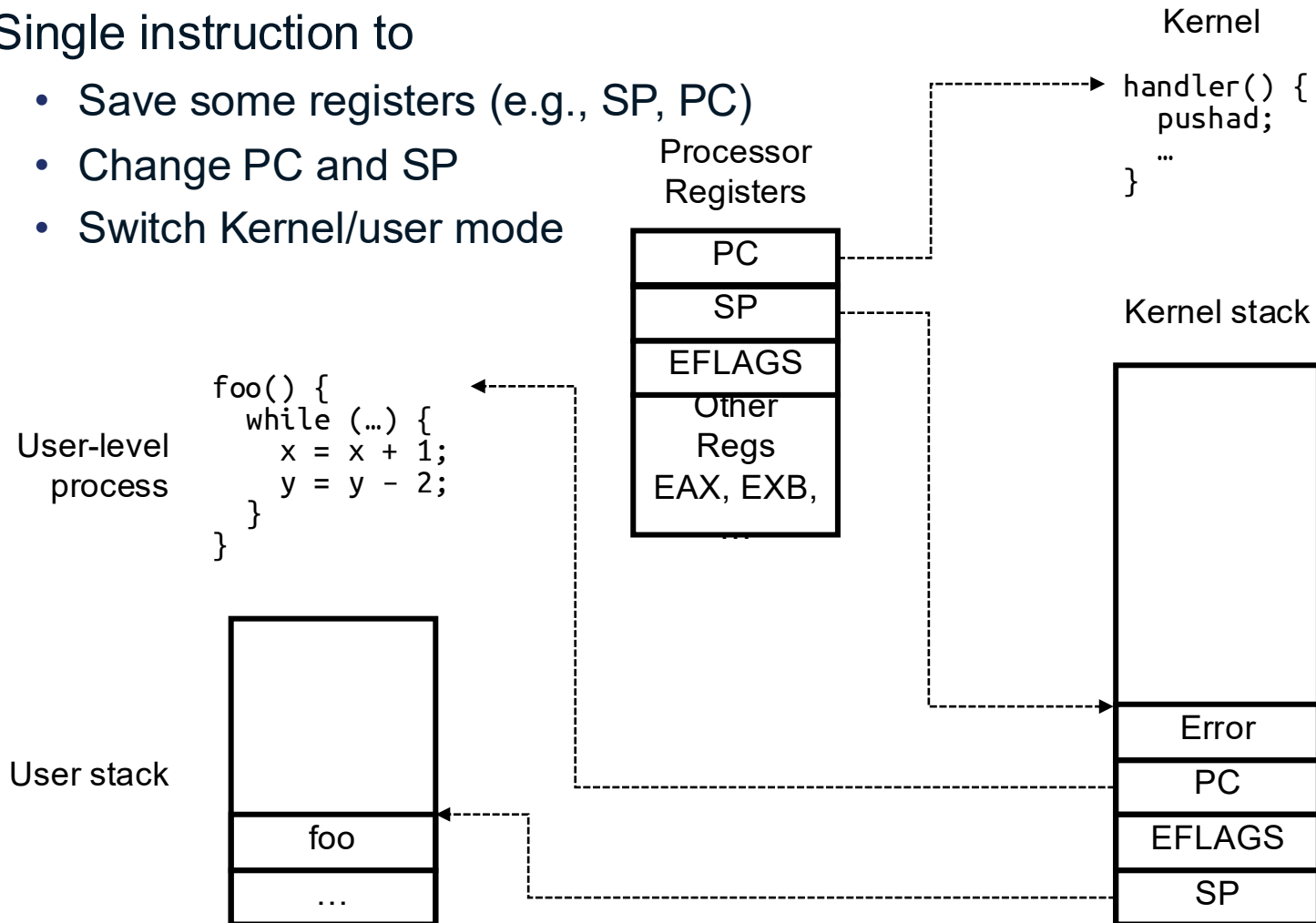
- Mask interrupts
- Save PC, SP, and execution flags in temporary HW registers
- Switch onto kernel interrupt stack (specified in special HW register)
- Push the three key values onto interrupt stack
- Optionally save an error code
- Invoke interrupt handler

Example: x86 Mode Transfer



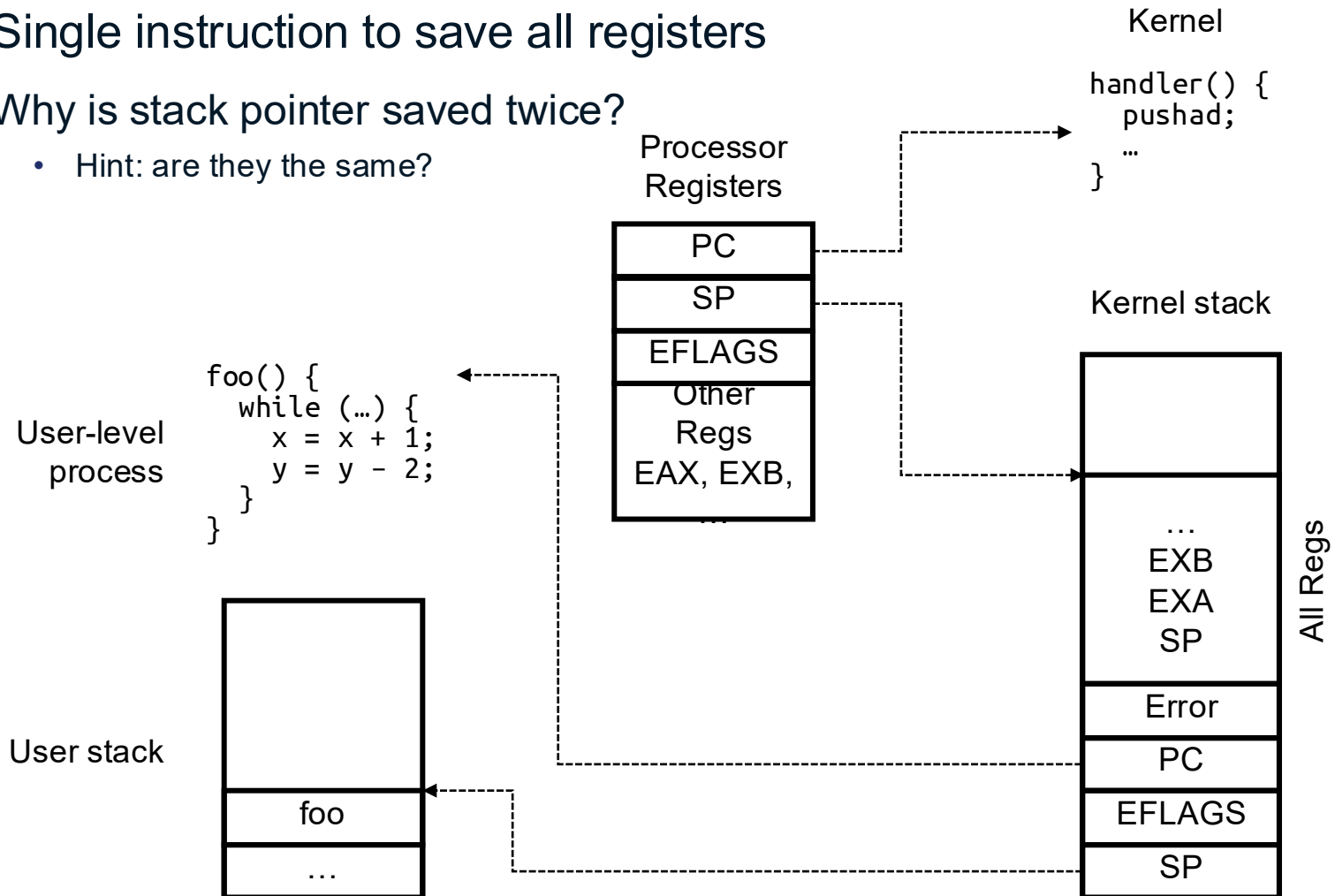
Example: x86 Mode Transfer (cont.)

- Single instruction to
 - Save some registers (e.g., SP, PC)
 - Change PC and SP
 - Switch Kernel/user mode



Example: x86 Mode Transfer (cont.)

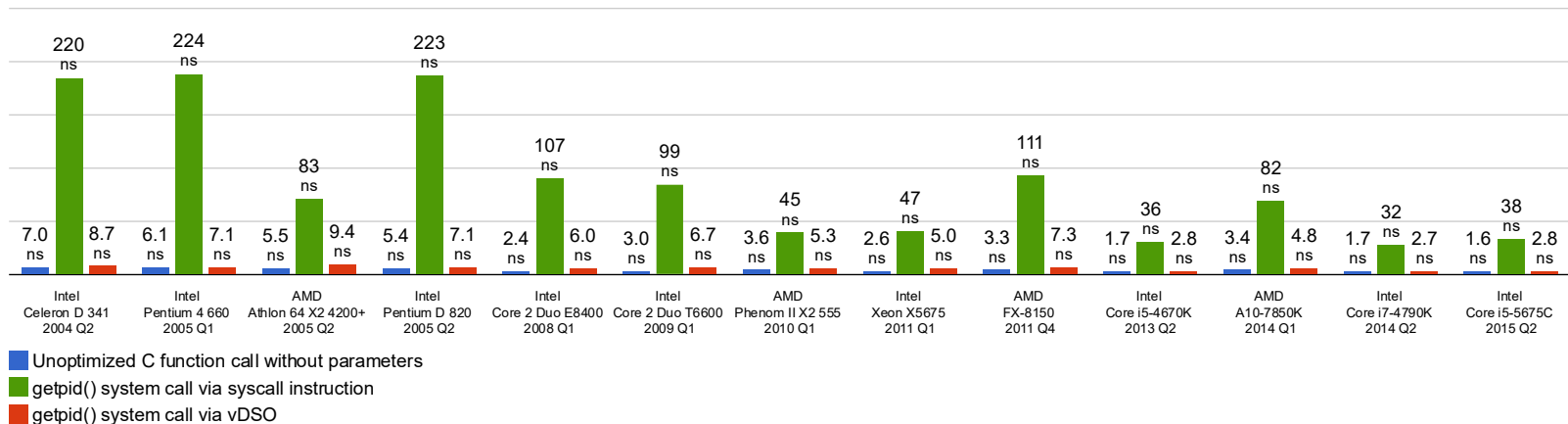
- Single instruction to save all registers
- Why is stack pointer saved twice?
 - Hint: are they the same?



Example: System Call Handler

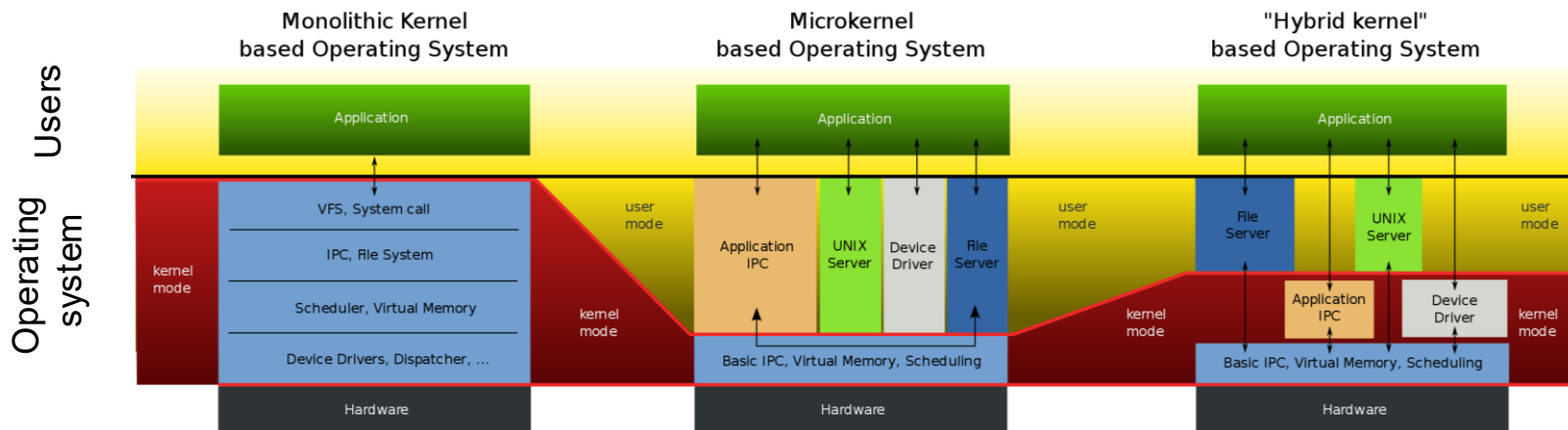
- Vector through well-defined system call entry points!
 - Table mapping system call number to handler
- Locate arguments
 - In registers or on user (!) stack
- Copy arguments (copy before check)
 - From user memory into kernel memory
 - Protect kernel from malicious code evading checks
- Validate arguments
 - Protect kernel from errors in user code
- Copy results back
 - Into user memory

Basic Cost of System Calls



- Min syscall has ~ 25x cost of function call
- Linux vDSO (virtual dynamic shared object) runs some system calls in user space
 - E.g., gettimeofday or getpid

Aside: Monolithic vs Microkernel OS



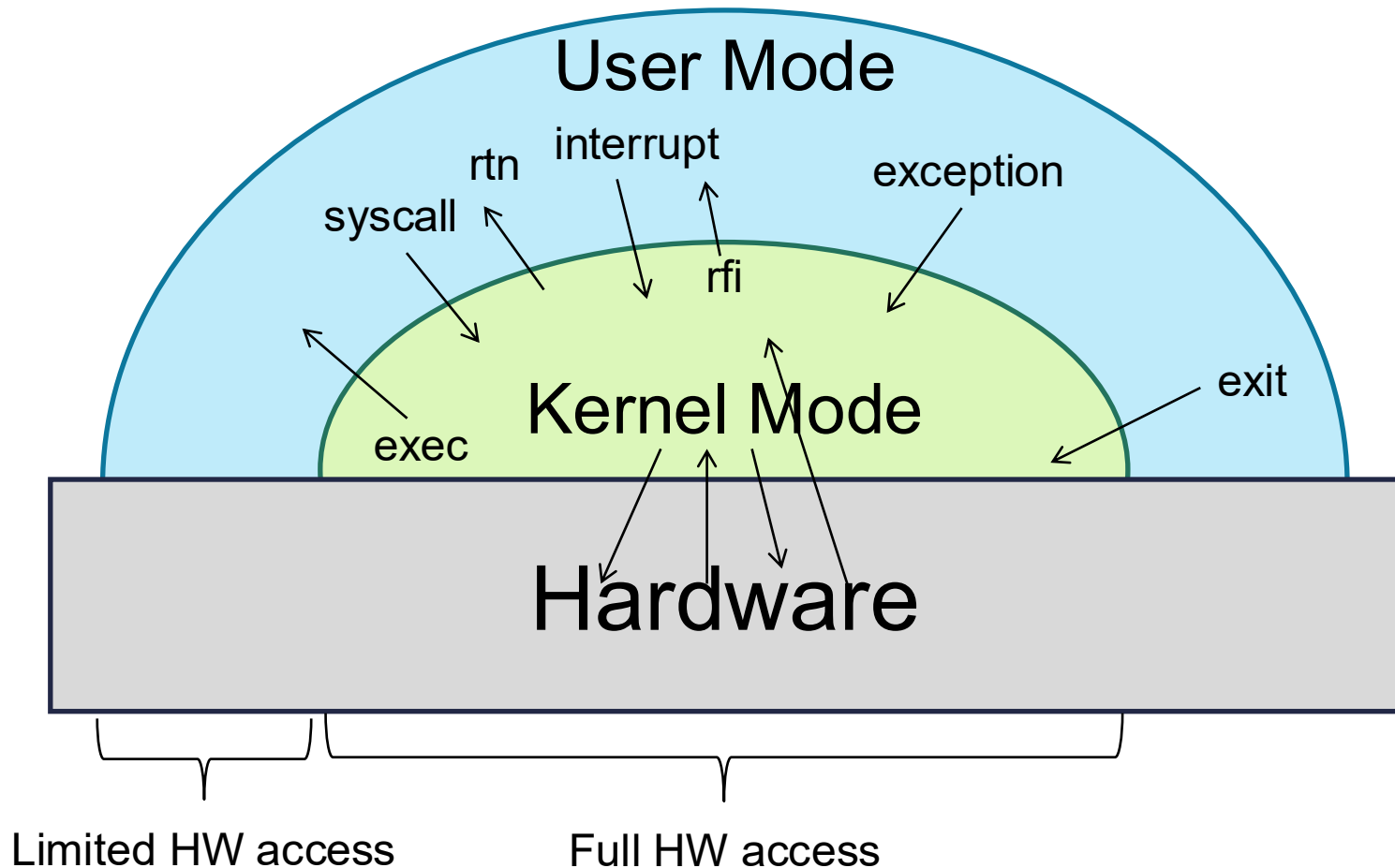
Aside: Influence of Microkernels

- Microkernels provide better modularity, security, and fault tolerance, but they introduce higher communication overhead
 - Too many context switches
- Many OSes provide some services externally, like microkernels
 - OS X and Linux: windowing (graphics and UI)
- Some currently monolithic OSes started as microkernels
 - Windows family originally had microkernel design
 - OS X is hybrid of Mach microkernel and FreeBSD monolithic

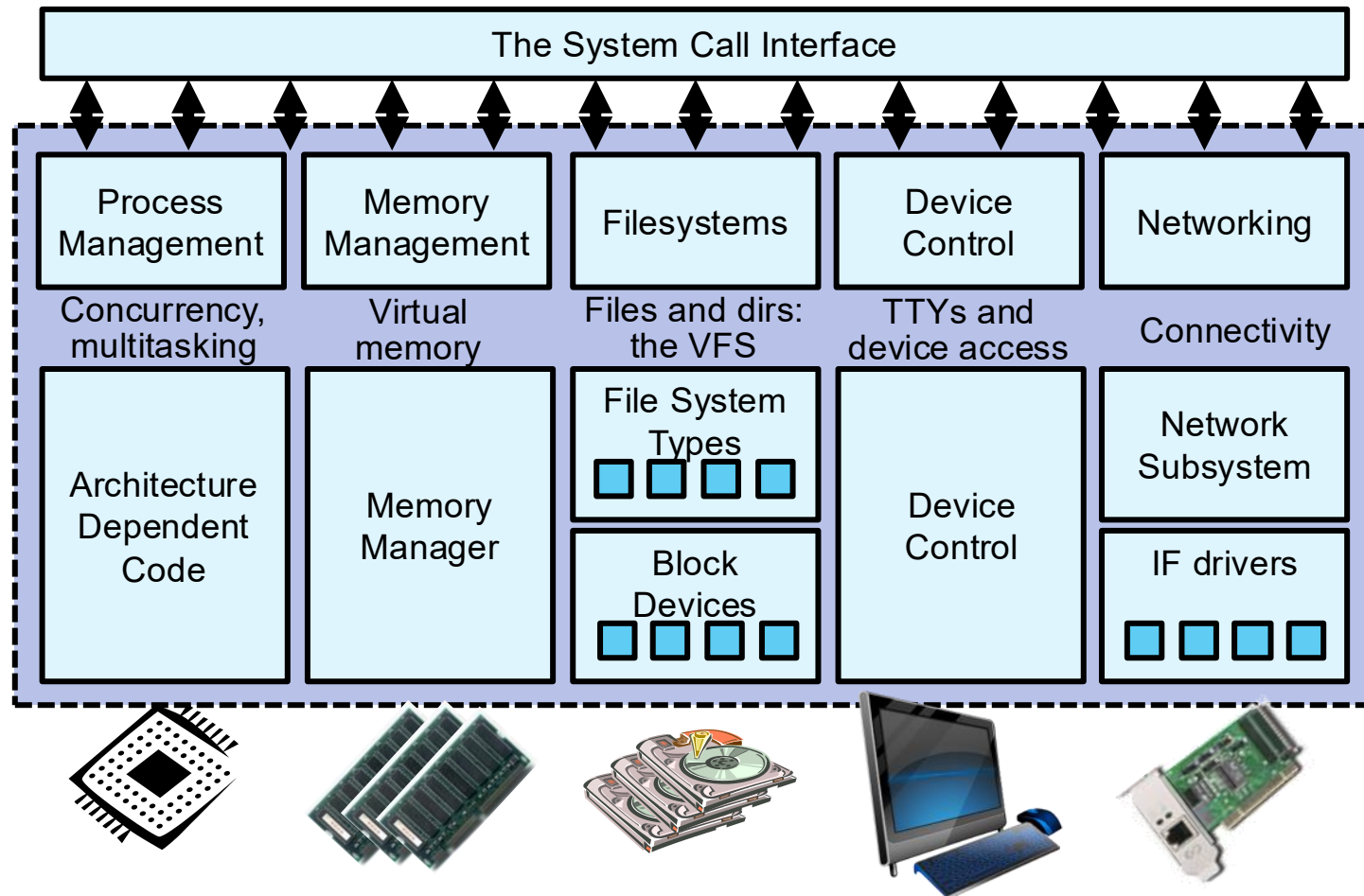
Kernel to User Mode Switch Examples

- New process/new thread start
 - Jump to first instruction in program/thread
- Return from interrupt, exception, system call
 - Resume suspended execution
- Process/thread context switch
 - Resume some other process
- User-level *upcall* (UNIX *signal*)
 - Asynchronous notification to user program
 - Preemptive user-level threads
 - Asynchronous I/O notification
 - Interprocess communication
 - User-level excepting handling
 - User-level resource allocation

Example: User/Kernel Mode Transfers



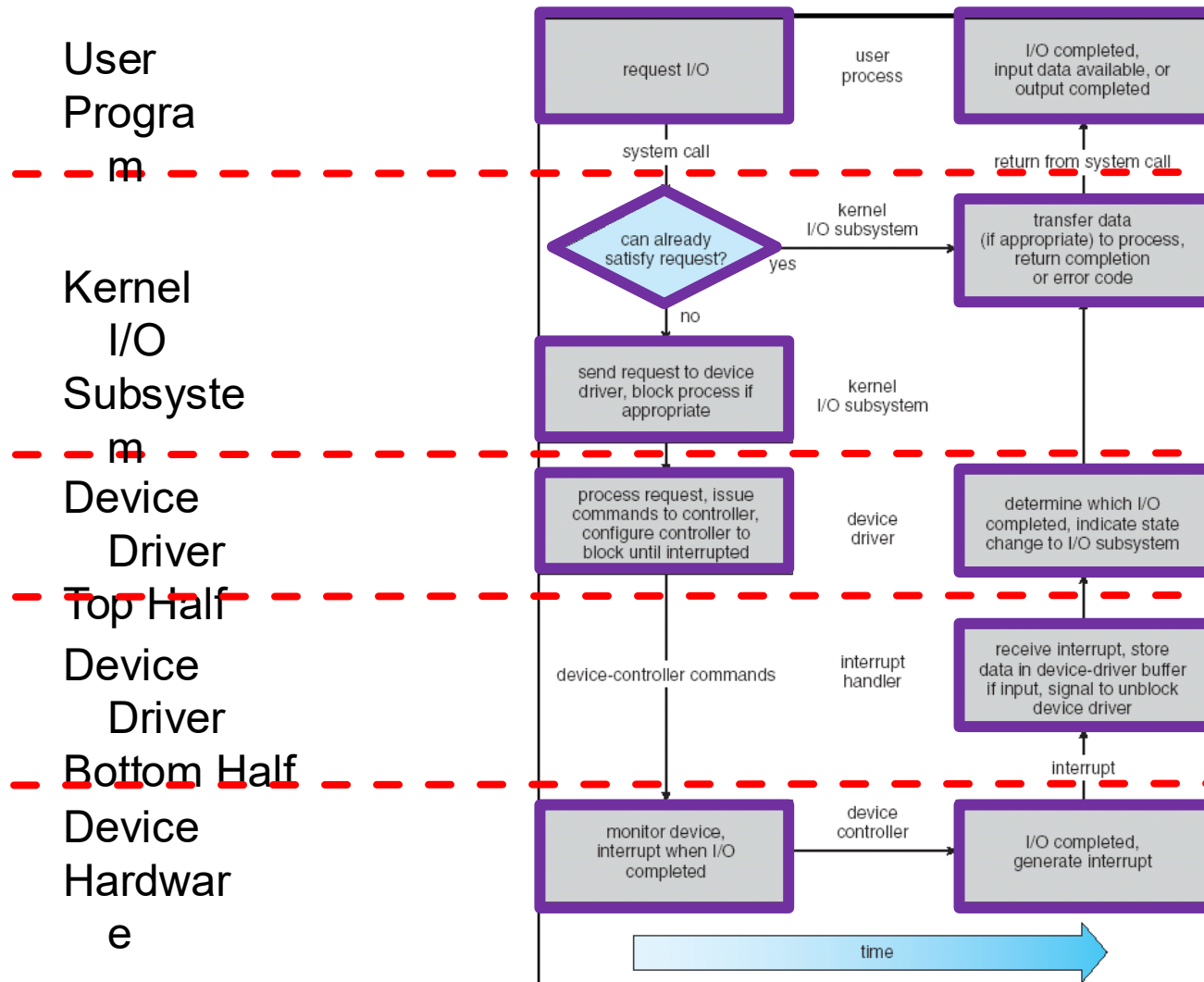
System Call Interface: Access Point to Hardware Resources



Device Drivers

- **Device-specific code** in kernel that interacts directly with device hardware
 - Supports standard, internal interface
 - Same kernel I/O system can interact easily with different device drivers
 - Special device-specific configuration supported with `ioctl()` syscall
- Device drivers are typically divided into two pieces
 - **Top half:** accessed in call path from system calls
 - implements a set of standard, cross-device calls like `open()`, `close()`, `read()`, `write()`, `ioctl()`, etc.
 - This is kernel's interface to device driver
 - Top half will start I/O to device, may put thread to sleep until finished
 - **Bottom half:** run as interrupt routine
 - Gets input or transfers next block of output
 - May wake sleeping threads if I/O now complete

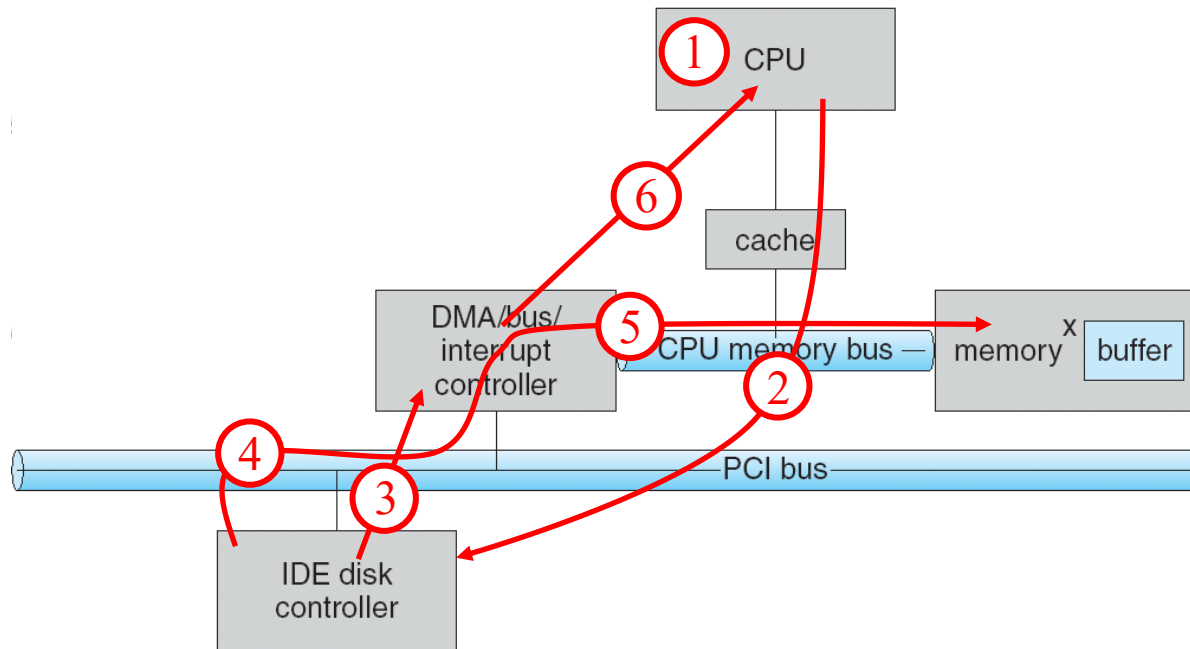
Life Cycle of an I/O Request



I/O Data Transfer

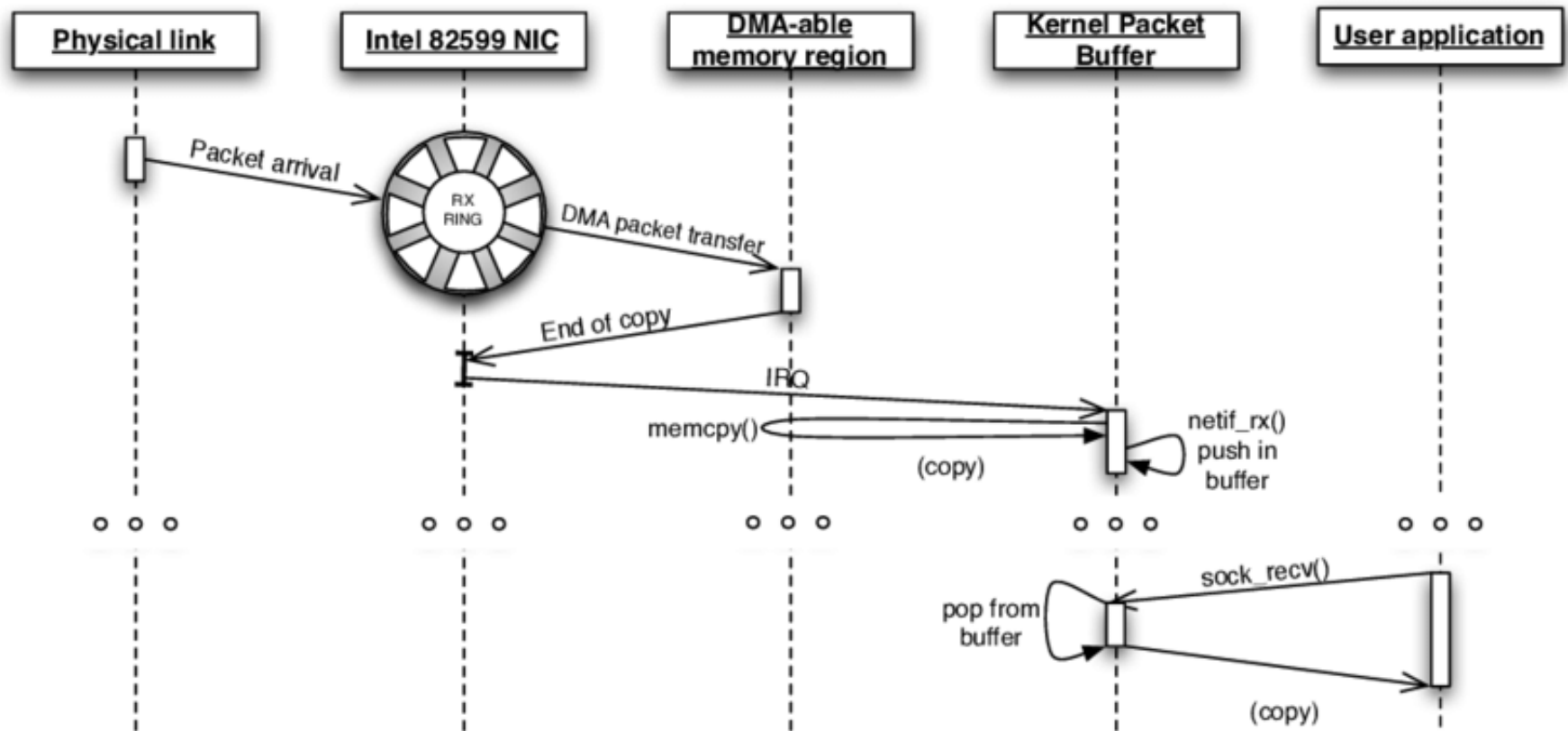
- Programmed I/O
 - Each byte transferred via processor in/out or load/store
 - + Simple hardware, easy to program
 - – Consumes processor cycles proportional to data size
- Direct memory access (DMA)
 - Give controller access to memory bus
 - Ask it to transfer data blocks to/from memory directly

DMA Transfer



1. Device driver is told to transfer disk data to buffer at address x
2. Device driver tells disk controller to transfer C bytes from disk to buffer at address x
3. Disk controller initiates DMA transfer
4. Disk controller send each byte to DMA controller
5. DMA controller transfers bytes to buffer x, increasing address and decreasing C
6. When C = 0, DMA interrupts CPU to signal transfer completion

DMA Example: Network Stack in Linux Kernels before 2.6

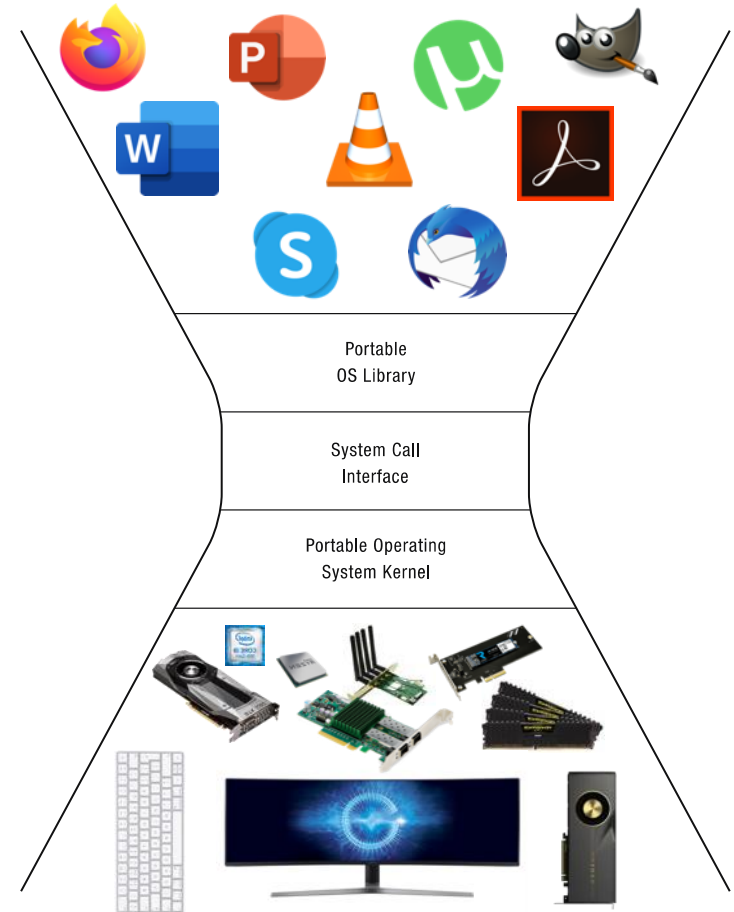
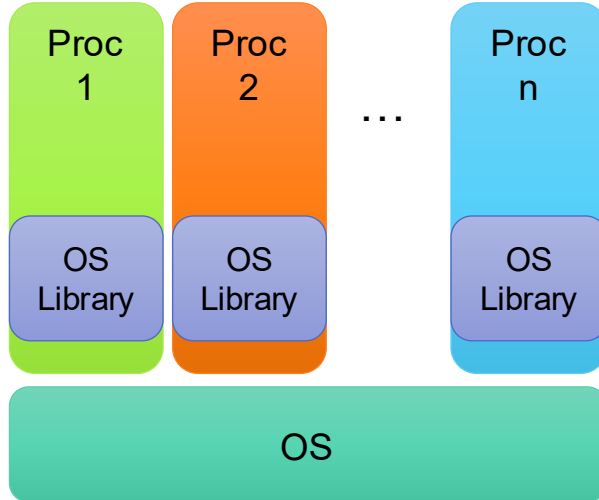
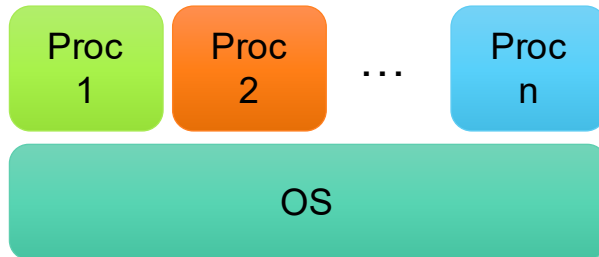


How Does Kernel Provide Services?



- You said that applications request services from OS via syscall, but ...
 - I've been writing all sorts of applications, and I never ever saw a "syscall" !!!
- That's right!
- It was buried in the programming language runtime library (e.g., libc.a)

OS Run-time Library



Putting it Together: Web Server



Client

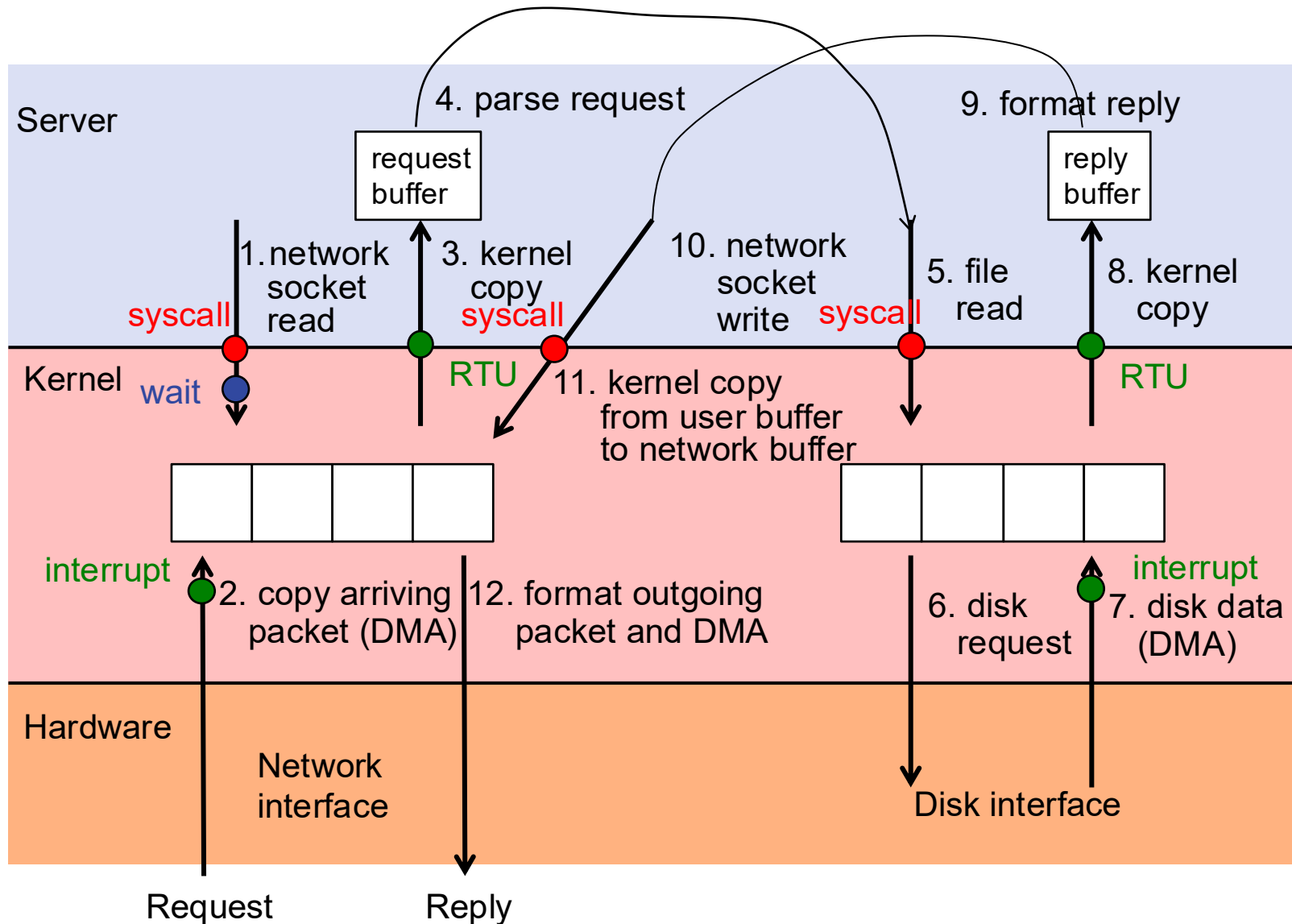
Request

Reply
(retrieved by web server)



Web Server

Putting it Together: Web Server (cont.)



Summery

- **Thread**
 - Single unique execution context which fully describes program state
 - Program counter, registers, execution flags, stack
- **Address space (with translation)**
 - Address space which is distinct from machine's physical memory addresses
- **Process**
 - Instance of executing program consisting of address space and 1+ threads
- **Dual-mode operation/protection**
 - Only “system” can access certain resources
 - OS and hardware are protected from user programs
 - User programs are isolated from one another by controlling translation from program virtual addresses to machine physical addresses

Questions?



Acknowledgment

- Slides by courtesy of Anderson, Culler, Stoica, Silberschatz, Joseph, Zarnett, and Canny